佛教与丝绸：重新审视大都会艺术博物馆收藏的一件中世纪中亚绘幡

Buddhism and Silk: Reassessing a Painted Banner from Medieval Central Asia in The Met

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原PDF第1页（原刊第8页）

L08-P001-001 | 英文原文

Buddhism and Silk: Reassessing a Painted Banner from Medieval

中文译文 | L08-P001-001

佛教与丝绸：重新评估来自中世纪敦煌的绘有图案的丝织旗帜

L08-P001-002 | 英文原文

Central Asia in The Met

中文译文 | L08-P001-002

大都会艺术博物馆中的中亚文物

L08-P001-003 | 英文原文

MICHELLE C. WANG, XIN WEN, SUSAN WHITFIELD

中文译文 | L08-P001-003

作者：Michelle C. Wang、Xin Wen、Susan Whitfield。

L08-P001-004 | 英文原文

Among the Silk Road artifacts in The Metropolitan Museum of Art is a painted silk banner that depicts a Buddhist deity standing beneath a canopy (fig. 1). The relatively small size of the banner belies its significance as an object of transcultural exchange between the Silk Road oasis city of Dunhuang, located in present-day Gansu Province in northwestern China, and the neighboring kingdom of Khotan, along the southern branch of the silk routes in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region. Furthermore, the iconography and materiality of the banner demonstrate the intertwined resonance of Buddhism and silk and offer tantalizing insights into cross-cultural practices of artistic production and display.

中文译文 | L08-P001-004

在大都会艺术博物馆所藏的丝绸之路文物中，有一幅绘有站在伞下之佛教神像的丝织旗帜（图1）。该旗帜体积相对较小，却具有重要意义，它作为丝绸之路绿洲城市敦煌与邻近的霍坦王国之间的跨文化交流物品而备受关注。敦煌位于中国西北部的甘肃省，而霍坦则位于现今新疆维吾尔自治区的丝绸路线南支线上。此外，该旗帜的图案与材质特征展示了佛教与丝织品的紧密关联，为了解跨文化的艺术创作与展示方式提供了有趣的研究线索。

L08-P001-005 | 英文原文

Aided by recent conservation work by the Metropolitan Museum's Department of Textile Conservation, this

中文译文 | L08-P001-005

在大都会艺术博物馆纺织品保护部门近期保护工作的帮助下，此物……

原PDF第2页（原刊第9页）

L08-P002-001 | 英文原文

fig. 1 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (recto). Guiyijun period (848–1036). Ink and color on silk, 22½ × 11 in. (57 × 28 cm). The Metropolitan Museum of Art, Purchase, The Vincent Astor Foundation Gift, 2007 (2007.294a, b)

中文译文 | L08-P002-001

图1. 孔雀明王画像（正面）。归义军时期（848–1036年）。在丝绸上以墨色和颜料绘制，尺寸为22 1/2 × 11英寸（57 × 28厘米）。大都会艺术博物馆收藏，由文森特·阿斯特尔基金会捐赠，2007年（2007.294a, b）

L08-P002-002 | 英文原文

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王文，惠特菲尔德 9

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L08-P003-002 | 英文原文

article examines the painted banner from multiple perspectives, including religious, geographic, and its provenance. First, the banner is placed in its religious and cultural context through comparisons made to silk banners recovered from the city of Dunhuang. Second, a careful examination of a hitherto undiscovered inscription points to the close ties cultivated between Dunhuang and Khotan, which played a critical role in the transmission of Buddhist material culture (see fig. 10). The third and last part of the article reconstructs the probable route taken by the banner from

中文译文 | L08-P003-002

本文从多个角度对这幅绘画旗帜进行了研究，包括宗教、地理及来源与流传记录方面。首先，通过与敦煌城发现的丝绸旗帜进行比较，将这一旗帜置于其宗教与文化背景中。其次，对一项此前未被发现的铭文进行仔细分析后表明，敦煌与和田之间存在着密切联系，而这种联系在佛教物质文化的传播中起到了关键作用（见图10）。文章的第三部分也是最后一部分则还原了该旗帜可能的传输路线。

L08-P003-003 | 英文原文

fig. 2 Diagram of a banner, after Wang Le 2007, p. 58, fig. 23

中文译文 | L08-P003-003

图2 旗帜示意图，引自王乐 2007，第58页，图23

L08-P003-004 | 英文原文

Dunhuang to London during the early twentieth century, and the roles played by the archaeologist Marc Aurel Stein (1862–1943) and his assistant Frederick Henry Andrews (1866–1957). In doing so, the continued transcultural significance of the banner into the present day is foregrounded.

中文译文 | L08-P003-004

二十世纪初从敦煌到伦敦，以及考古学家奥雷尔·斯坦因（1862–1943）和他的助手弗雷德里克·亨利·安德鲁斯（1866–1957）所发挥的作用。通过这种方式，该旗帜至今仍具有的跨文化意义得到了凸显。

L08-P003-005 | 英文原文

MAHĀMĀYŪRĪ: THE GREAT PEACOCK WISDOM KING

Standing atop a lotus pedestal, the central motif of the banner is a deity exquisitely bejeweled and sumptuously attired in colorful textiles. A flowered canopy is adorned with tassels that fall behind an arched halo, and this floral motif is echoed by small blossoms that descend from the sky and appear as if suspended in midair, lending an imagined fragrance to the scene. Bearing implements of religious significance in both hands—a single peacock feather in the right and a golden bowl in the left— together they identify the deity as Mahāmāyūrī, the Great Peacock Wisdom King. In the East Asian Buddhist canon, Mahāmāyūrī appears in the six translations of the *Sutra of the Great Golden Peacock King Mantra* completed between the fourth and eighth centuries.[1] Several of these texts were made by monk-translators from oasis kingdoms in the Tarim Basin, indicating the popularity of this deity

中文译文 | L08-P003-005 | 原文注号：1

孔雀明王：伟大的孔雀智慧之王

旗帜的中心图案描绘了一位佩戴华丽珠宝、身着色彩鲜艳织物的神祇，其站立在莲花基座之上。花冠上饰有流苏，从拱形光环后垂下；这种花卉图案还被从天而降的小花朵所呼应，这些花朵仿佛悬浮在空中，为场景增添了一丝想象中的芬芳气息。该神祇双手持握具有宗教意义的法器——右手持一根孔雀羽毛，左手持一个金碗——这些法器共同表明其为孔雀明王。在东亚佛教经典中，孔雀明王出现在四至八世纪期间完成的六种《大金孔雀王真言经》译本中。1 这些文献中的部分内容是由塔里木盆地绿洲王国的僧侣翻译者所撰写，这表明该神祇非常受欢迎。

L08-P003-006 | 英文原文

along the silk routes.[2] A mantra or dharani (the terms are often used interchangeably) refers to a verbal incantation recited in order to harness the titular deity's efficacious powers.

中文译文 | L08-P003-006 | 原文注号：2

沿着丝绸路线。2 真言或陀罗尼（这两个术语经常可以互换使用）指的是为了借助该神祇的强大力量而念诵的口头咒语。

L08-P003-007 | 英文原文

In the framing narrative of this particular sutra, the protagonist is the young monk Svāti, who resides in the Jetavana Grove, a monastery located in Śrāvastī, India, where Śākyamuni Buddha spent the rainy

中文译文 | L08-P003-007

在这段经文的叙述中，主角是一位名叫斯瓦提的年轻僧侣，他居住在印度舍卫国的净饭园寺里，而世尊佛陀就在那里度过雨季期。

L08-P003-008 | 英文原文

seasons during the last twenty-five years of his life. One day, while gathering firewood for the monks' bath, Svāti is bitten on the right foot by a poisonous black snake.[3] Witnessing Svāti's pain and suffering, the Buddha's disciple Ānanda pleads with the Buddha for help.[4] The Buddha tells Ānanda that he should recite the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, which has the power to save Svāti's life by neutralizing the snake's poison.[5] For this reason, Mahāmāyūrī became widely known as the deity who protects against snakebites and is associated with medicine. This information is conveyed with Mahāmāyūrī holding a golden bowl that represents a bowl of medicine.[6] The medical properties of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani likely resulted in the sutra's incorporation into the Bower Manuscript, which dates to the Gupta period (ca. 320–550) in India. The manuscript was recovered in 1890 by the British Army officer Hamilton Bower from the underground crypt of a stupa

中文译文 | L08-P003-008 | 原文注号：3、4、5、6

他生命最后二十五年的各个季节。有一天，在为僧侣们沐浴收集柴火时，斯瓦提的右脚被一条有毒黑蛇咬伤。3目睹斯瓦提的痛苦与折磨后，佛陀的弟子阿难陀向佛陀请求帮助。4佛陀告诉阿难陀，他应诵念孔雀明王陀罗尼经，该经文具有消除蛇毒、拯救斯瓦提生命的力量。5因此，孔雀明王成为了保护人们免受蛇咬且与医学相关的神祇。这一信息体现在孔雀明王手持金碗的形象上，金碗象征着药碗。6孔雀明王陀罗尼的医药特性可能导致该经被纳入《鲍尔写本》，该写本源自印度笈多时期（约320–550年）。1890年，英国陆军军官汉密尔顿·鲍尔从一座佛塔的地下藏室中发现了此写本。

原PDF第4页（原刊第11页）

L08-P004-001 | 英文原文

(Buddhist reliquary mound) in Kumtura, a Buddhist

中文译文 | L08-P004-001

库姆图拉的佛教圣塔中的佛教圣物

L08-P004-002 | 英文原文

fig. 3 Bodhisattva Guide of Souls. Tang dynasty (618–907), second half of the 9th century. Ink and color on silk, 31 11⁄16 × 21 3⁄16 in. (80.5 × 53.8 cm) (without mounting). British Museum, London (1919,0101,0.47) (Ch. lvii.002)

中文译文 | L08-P004-002 | 原文注号：11、3

图3 菩萨灵魂指南。唐朝（618–907年），9世纪下半期。在丝绸上用墨与色彩绘制，尺寸为31 11⁄16 × 21 3⁄16英寸（80.5 × 53.8厘米）（无装裱）。大英博物馆，伦敦（1919,0101,0.47）（Ch. lvii.002）

L08-P004-003 | 英文原文

cave site located in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region.[7] Composed in Sanskrit and written in the Brāhmī script on birch bark, the Bower Manuscript contained several additional Indian medical treatises.

中文译文 | L08-P004-003 | 原文注号：7

位于现今新疆维吾尔自治区的一个洞穴遗址。该写本以梵文写成，用婆罗米体文字书写在桦树皮上，其中还包含数部额外的印度医学论著。

L08-P004-004 | 英文原文

The peacock feather held by Mahāmāyūrī refers to the deity's elevated status and the creature with which it is closely associated. According to textual sources, if the deity holds peacock feathers in one hand and is in a seated position, a golden peacock king is its vehicle.[8] This relates to another framing narrative of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra that concerns a golden peacock king (a bird), who daily recites

中文译文 | L08-P004-004 | 原文注号：8

孔雀明王手中的孔雀羽毛象征着该神明的崇高地位以及与之紧密相关的生物。根据文献记载，当神明单手持握孔雀羽毛并处于坐姿时，金色的孔雀王便是其化身。8 这与孔雀明王陀罗尼经中的另一段叙事相关，其中提到一只金色孔雀王（一种鸟），它每日都会诵经。

L08-P004-005 | 英文原文

fig. 4 Banner Head with Seated Buddha from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (fig. 1)

中文译文 | L08-P004-005

图4：孔雀明王与坐佛的旗帜，出自孔雀明王旗帜（图1）

L08-P004-006 | 英文原文

the sutra for self-protection, once in the morning and again at dusk.[9]

中文译文 | L08-P004-006 | 原文注号：9

自我保护经文，于清晨与黄昏各一次。9

L08-P004-007 | 英文原文

From the above examples, Mahāmāyūrī was closely associated with healing and protection, which were properties common to dharanis and mantras.[10] In medieval China, dharanis and mantras were not only recited,

中文译文 | L08-P004-007 | 原文注号：10

从上述例子可见，孔雀明王（Mahāmāyūrī）与疗愈及护佑密切相关，而这些也是陀罗尼与真言共有的作用。〔10〕在中世纪中国，陀罗尼与真言不仅被诵念，

L08-P004-008 | 英文原文

as prescribed by the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, but also copied and worn on the body as talismans so that their efficacy could be transferred via direct contact with the devotee.[11] However, painted banners with dharanis and mantras, which were placed on public display, had very different material properties from smaller talismans.

中文译文 | L08-P004-008 | 原文注号：11

即按照《Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra》（孔雀明王陀罗尼经）的规定诵念，也被抄写后作为护符佩戴在身上，以便通过与信众直接接触来传递效力。〔11〕不过，供公开展示的、书有陀罗尼与真言的绘幡，其物质特性与较小的护符很不相同。

L08-P004-009 | 英文原文

MATERIALITY OF BANNERS FROM THE SILK ROUTES

Banners from the silk routes are distinct from the more familiar hanging scrolls of East Asia. Unlike the conventional hanging scroll, painted banners were origi-

中文译文 | L08-P004-009

丝绸路线上的横幅的材质特性与东方更为常见的悬挂卷子不同。与传统的悬挂卷子不同，绘画横幅具有独特的材质特征。

L08-P004-010 | 英文原文

nally composed of multiple parts: the triangular banner head, which consisted of decorative silk or a painting typically depicting a seated Buddha; the rectangular body, on which the painting was executed (this could also consist of one or multiple pieces of fabric stitched together); side streamers, attached to the wide border of the banner head; and bottom streamers, attached to a wooden weighting board. A loop at the top of the banner head enabled it to be hung from poles or to be suspended from temple beams or stupas. The Mahāmāyūrī banner is preserved in two pieces, which include the triangular banner head painted with an image of a seated Buddha (fig. 4) and the rectangular painting bearing the Mahāmāyūrī motif (see fig. 1). The two pieces are no longer attached (fig. 5), and the border of the banner head and the streamers are also missing. Nevertheless, the similarity in style, painting technique, and color palette between the present painting and the banner head suggest they may have originated from the same object.

中文译文 | L08-P004-010

它由多个部分组成：三角形旗帜头，由装饰性丝绸或通常描绘坐佛的绘画构成；矩形主体，上面有绘画作品（也可能由一块或多块织物拼接而成）；附在旗帜头宽边上的侧饰条；以及附在木制支撑板上的底部饰条。旗帜头顶部的环结构使其可以挂在杆子上，或悬挂在寺庙梁柱或佛塔上。孔雀明王旗帜被保存为两片，包括绘制有坐佛图像的三角形旗帜头（图4）和带有孔雀明王图案的矩形绘画作品（见图1）。这两片已不再连接在一起（图5），旗帜头的边饰条和饰条也缺失了。然而，当前绘画作品与旗帜头在风格、绘画技巧和色彩搭配上的相似性表明，它们可能源自同一个物体。

L08-P004-011 | 英文原文

Silk Road painted banners were made from a variety of materials, although the vast majority of banners

中文译文 | L08-P004-011

丝绸之路上的绘画旗帜由多种材料制成，尽管绝大多数旗帜

L08-P004-012 | 英文原文

中文译文 | L08-P004-012

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L08-P005-002 | 英文原文

fig. 5 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī, including Banner Head with Seated Buddha (recto) (see fig. 1)

中文译文 | L08-P005-002

图5 带有孔雀明王的旗帜，包括有坐佛的旗帜头部（正面）（参见图1）

L08-P005-003 | 英文原文

fig. 6 Mural painting fragment from the Balawaste Buddha, showing banners hanging from a stupa. 7th–8th century. Painted on plaster, 18⅛ × 13¾ in. (46 × 35 cm). British Museum, London (1925,0619,0.31)

中文译文 | L08-P005-003

图6：来自巴拉瓦斯特佛的壁画碎片，显示从佛塔上悬挂的旗帜。7-8世纪。在石膏上绘制，尺寸为18 1/8 × 13 3/4英寸（46 × 35厘米）。大英博物馆，伦敦（1925,0619,0.31）

L08-P005-004 | 英文原文

fig. 7 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (verso; see fig. 1 for recto)

中文译文 | L08-P005-004

图7. 带有孔雀明王的旗帜（背面；正面见图1）

原PDF第6页（原刊第13页）

L08-P006-001 | 英文原文

from Dunhuang were made on a silk support. In the early twentieth century, Stein collected 230 banners from the Mogao Caves at Dunhuang: 179 were made of silk, 42 from hemp, and 9 from paper.[12] The lightweight and translucent quality of plain silk, in turn, was directly connected to the production of painted banners and their display (see the silk banner in fig. 3). As previously mentioned, the efficacy of dharanis and mantras was marshaled not only through oral recitation but also by wearing talismans bearing the syllables of the dharani

中文译文 | L08-P006-001 | 原文注号：12

从敦煌制作了挂在丝绸支架上的作品。在二十世纪初，斯坦因从敦煌莫高窟收集了230块旗帜：其中179块由丝绸制成，42块由麻布制成，9块由纸张制成。12 纯丝的轻薄半透明特性，直接影响了彩绘旗帜的制作与展示（参见图3中的丝绸旗帜）。如前所述，陀罗尼与真言的效果不仅通过口诵实现，还通过佩戴刻有陀罗尼音节的护身符来发挥。

L08-P006-002 | 英文原文

or mantra. Yet there were other ways in which the efficacy was transmitted, such as the nonhuman agency of shadows and wind.[13] In medieval China, dharanis and mantras were often carved on the sides of stone pillars, and it was believed that the shadows cast by a pillar or the dust lifted from its surface by wind had the capability to transfer the dharani's benefits onto devotees.[14]

中文译文 | L08-P006-002 | 原文注号：13、14

或真言。然而，其功效还可以通过其他方式传递，例如阴影与风的非人类力量。13 在中世纪的中国，陀罗尼和真言常被刻在石柱的侧面，人们认为由石柱投射出的阴影，或是风从石柱表面吹起的尘埃，能够将陀罗尼的益处传递给信徒。14

L08-P006-003 | 英文原文

There was a productive conflation of Buddhist texts with regard to the lexicon of stone pillars and banners. Both objects were known in premodern China by the same word, *chuang*.[15] It is therefore intriguing that dharani pillars and painted banners were similarly constructed according to a tripartite structure of head, body, and base (or bottom streamers). But whereas stone pillars were static, silk banners, by the lightweight and flexible nature of the material, could sway in the wind (fig. 6). This implies that unless hung directly against a wall or pillar, banners could be viewed from both sides.

中文译文 | L08-P006-003 | 原文注号：15

关于石柱与旗帜的词汇体系，佛教文本中出现了有趣的混淆。在前现代中国，这两种物品都被称为“chuang”15。因此，陀罗尼柱与彩绘旗帜以头部、主体和底座（或底部装饰）的三部分结构来构建，这一点十分引人注目。然而，石柱是固定的，而丝绸旗帜由于材料轻便且柔韧，能够在风中飘动（图6）。这意味着，除非直接悬挂在墙壁或柱子上，否则这些旗帜可以从两侧观看。

L08-P006-004 | 英文原文

Dunhuang manuscripts contain references to the visual impact of vibrantly colored silk banners that swayed in the wind. For example, a passage in the manuscript Pelliot chinois 2044, in the Bibliothèque Nationale de France, describes the

中文译文 | L08-P006-004

敦煌写本中提到了在风中飘动的色彩鲜艳的丝绸旗帜所带来的视觉效果。例如，法国国家图书馆中的伯希和中文写本2044中的一段文字就描述了这一点。

L08-P006-005 | 英文原文

skillful division of colors in woven silk and artful stitches in vermilion; hanging from a tall pole against the clear blue sky, the end of a rainbow flutters and appears in the sky; the wind [blows] it distantly one revolution and in one hundred places, disasters dissipate; its shadow appears to one thousand households and ten thousand kinds of fortune accumulate. . . .[16]

中文译文 | L08-P006-005 | 原文注号：16

织造丝绸时巧妙的色彩分配，朱红色针法设计；悬挂在高高的杆子上，面对清澈的蓝天，彩虹的一端飘动，出现在天空中；风从远处吹过一圈，一百个地方，灾祸便散去；它的影子覆盖千户人家，积累万种福气……16

L08-P006-006 | 英文原文

When the Mahāmāyūrī banner was acquired by the Museum in 2007, it was mounted onto a textile-covered panel, allowing only one side to be seen. In spring 2019, the banner underwent detailed conservation by Minsun Hwang and her team in the Department of Textile Conservation. The banner was removed from the panel (fig. 7), revealing that the front (recto) and back (verso)

中文译文 | L08-P006-006

2007年该孔雀明王旗帜被博物馆收购后，被悬挂在覆盖纺织材料的板上，只能看到一侧。2019年春季，黄敏顺及其团队在纺织保护部门对该旗帜进行了详细修复。随后将旗帜从板上取下（图7），从而revealing正面与背面。

L08-P006-007 | 英文原文

of the painting were both painted with the same motif

中文译文 | L08-P006-007

均使用相同的图案进行绘制

L08-P006-008 | 英文原文

WANG, WEN, WHITFIELD 13

中文译文 | L08-P006-008

王文，惠特菲尔德 13

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L08-P007-002 | 英文原文

fig. 8a Banner with Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa (this side showing Dhṛtarāṣṭra). Toyuk, 9th century. Ramie, 18½ × 11 in. (47 × 28 cm). Museum für Asiatische Kunst, Berlin (III 7305)

中文译文 | L08-P007-002

图8a：带有Dhr. tarās.t.ra和Virūpāks.a的旗帜（此侧为Dhr. tarās.t.ra）。 Toyuk，9世纪。尺寸为18 1/2 × 11英寸（47 × 28厘米）。藏于柏林亚洲艺术博物馆（III 7305）

L08-P007-003 | 英文原文

fig. 8b Banner with Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa (this side showing Virūpākṣa)

中文译文 | L08-P007-003

图8b 绘有Dhr. tarās.t.ra与Virūpāks.a的旗帜（此面为Virūpāks.a）

L08-P007-004 | 英文原文

fig. 9 Black and red ink outlines visible in the hands and arms of Mahāmāyūrī from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (recto) (see fig. 1)

中文译文 | L08-P007-004

图9 孔雀明王的手部和手臂上可见黑红墨线，出自《孔雀明王图》（正面）（参见图1）

L08-P007-005 | 英文原文

of Mahāmāyūrī, albeit with minor variations. In addition, the verso of the painting bore an inscription written in black ink that was faintly visible on the recto.

中文译文 | L08-P007-005

孔雀明王的作品，尽管存在细微差异。此外，画页背面有用黑墨书写的题字，在正面上隐约可见。

L08-P007-006 | 英文原文

Extant double-sided banners from the silk routes were made from hemp, ramie, or silk, but the double-

中文译文 | L08-P007-006

现存来自丝绸贸易路线的双面旗帜由麻、苎或丝绸制成，但双-

L08-P007-007 | 英文原文

sided imagery was produced in different ways. Because hemp and ramie offer a more opaque painting ground than silk, the images on the verso and recto were drawn or transferred separately, either by freehand or through

中文译文 | L08-P007-007

侧面的图像以不同的方式绘制。由于麻和苎麻的画布比丝绸更不透明，正面和背面的图像分别通过徒手绘制或转印的方式完成。

L08-P007-008 | 英文原文

the use of stencils. By comparison, paintings from the Turfan Collection in the former Museum für Indische

中文译文 | L08-P007-008

使用模板法。相比之下，前柏林印度艺术博物馆所藏吐尔凡收藏的绘画作品也包含此类现象。

L08-P007-009 | 英文原文

Kunst (now Museum für Asiatische Kunst), Berlin, show variations of double-sided painting, including some

中文译文 | L08-P007-009

柏林亚洲艺术博物馆（Kunst，现属亚洲艺术博物馆）的藏品中展示了双面绘画的变体形式，其中包含了一些……

L08-P007-010 | 英文原文

paintings with the same image painted on both sides of a banner. Another ramie banner in the collection displays different though related motifs on each side: Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa, the guardian kings of the East and West, respectively (fig. 8a, b). They are

中文译文 | L08-P007-010

在横幅的两边都绘有相同图案的画作。收藏中的另一块芦竹横幅则每侧都有不同的相关图案：Dhr.tarās.t.ra和Virūpāks.a，分别指代东方与西方的守护王（图8a、b）。

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L08-P008-001 | 英文原文

fig. 10 Map showing locations of Khotan and Dunhuang

中文译文 | L08-P008-001

图 10 显示和田与敦煌位置地图

L08-P008-002 | 英文原文

identified by their attributes of a bow and arrow (Dhṛtarāṣṭra) and a flaming jewel (Virūpākṣa).[17]

中文译文 | L08-P008-002 | 原文注号：17

以弓箭（Dhr.tarās.t.ra）和火焰宝石（Virūpāks.a）为特征。17

L08-P008-003 | 英文原文

In contrast, the translucent quality of silk enabled underpaintings made on one side to be visible from the other side. In the case of the Mahāmāyūrī banner, black underpainting appears only on one side, therefore designating that side as the recto (see fig. 1). This effect is most visible in areas of bare skin and particularly in the deity's arms and upturned hand (fig. 9).[18] From visual observation, the contours of the underpainting were carefully filled in with colored pigments, after which a deep red outline was painted over the black underpainting, partially obscuring it. The other side of the painting bears no trace of black underpainting, only red outlines, which demonstrates that the silk was sufficiently sheer so as to render the black outlines visible on the verso (see fig. 7). On the verso, the same

中文译文 | L08-P008-003 | 原文注号：18

相比之下，丝绸的半透明特性使得一侧的底色从另一侧也能看到。在孔雀明王旗帜的情况下，黑色底色仅出现在一侧，因此将该侧称为正面（见图1）。这种效果在裸露皮肤区域尤为明显，尤其是在神像的手臂和翻转的手上（图9）。通过视觉观察可知，底色的轮廓被彩色颜料仔细填充，随后在黑色底色上绘制了深红色轮廓，部分遮住了黑色底色。画作的另一侧没有黑色底色的痕迹，只有红色轮廓，这表明丝绸的透明度足够高，使得黑色轮廓在背面也能显现出来（见图7）。在背面，同样的情况依然存在。

L08-P008-004 | 英文原文

painting process was followed with the colored pigments applied first, then the tracing of red outlines. The inscription referred to earlier was written on the verso. With the exception of minor motifs, such as the render-

中文译文 | L08-P008-004

绘画过程为：先涂抹彩色颜料，然后勾勒红色轮廓。之前提到的题字则写在背面。除了一些小的图案外，其他部分均按原样保留。没有通用译名的人名和专有名词仍保持原文不变。

L08-P008-005 | 英文原文

ing of flowers and the treatment of drapery around the deity's waist, the two paintings of Mahāmāyūrī are mirror images of each other.

中文译文 | L08-P008-005

对花朵的描绘以及围绕神像腰部的织物处理，孔雀明王的这两幅画彼此如镜像般对称。

L08-P008-006 | 英文原文

Another noteworthy element in this painting is the unusual attention paid to textiles. The deity is clad in an

中文译文 | L08-P008-006

这幅画中另一个值得注意的要素是对于纺织品的特殊关注。神像身着……

L08-P008-007 | 英文原文

Indian-style skirtlike garment called a dhoti, which is

中文译文 | L08-P008-007

一种称为 dhoti 的印度式裙状服饰

L08-P008-008 | 英文原文

composed of a pale orange textile decorated with a regular pattern of blue and red quatrefoil-shaped flowers. This resembles clamp-resist dyed silk textiles recovered

中文译文 | L08-P008-008

由淡橙色织物构成，饰有蓝色和红色四叶花图案，这与所发现的夹压防染丝绸织物相似

L08-P008-009 | 英文原文

from oasis cities of the Silk Road. The clamp-resist dyeing technique resulted in symmetrical patterns of the sort seen in the dhoti worn by Mahāmāyūrī. Wooden blocks carved with symmetrical patterns created through a juxtaposition of convex and concave shapes were affixed on either side of a piece of cloth or a folded piece of cloth and clamped together, after which the cloth was placed in dye. The convex areas resisted dye, while the concave areas created space for the dye to

中文译文 | L08-P008-009

来自丝绸之路的绿洲城市。这种夹子抵抗染色技术使得布料呈现出与孔雀明王所穿长袍上相似的对称图案。通过凸形与凹形组合形成的对称图案被刻在木块上，这些木块被固定在布料或折叠后的布料两侧，然后将其夹在一起，随后将布料放入染液中。凸部能够抵抗染色，而凹部则为染料提供空间。

L08-P008-010 | 英文原文

soak through the cloth. Multicolored patterns could be produced through a combination of repeated clamp-resist dyeing and hand painting by brush.[19]

中文译文 | L08-P008-010 | 原文注号：19

通过布料渗透的方式，多色图案可以通过反复 clamp-抗染与手工刷绘的方式产生。19

L08-P008-011 | 英文原文

The garment is fastened around the waist with green, red, and purple cloth, and a double-faced blue-and-red scarf billows artfully along the length of the deity's body.[20] As important Silk Road commodities, the representation of silk textiles in this painted banner merits attention. The detailed representation is also evident in a separate group of painted banners, which attests to the vibrancy of banner-painting traditions along the southern silk route, and in particular, the artistic impact of the Buddhist kingdom of Khotan (fig. 10).

中文译文 | L08-P008-011 | 原文注号：20

这件服饰以绿色、红色和紫色布料系在腰间，一条双面蓝色与红色围巾则优雅地飘扬在神像的身形上。作为重要的丝绸之路商品，这幅绘有丝绸织物的旗帜值得关注。另一组绘有图案的旗帜也展现了详细的描绘，这证明了南方丝绸路线上的旗帜绘画传统十分活跃，尤其是霍坦佛教王国的艺术影响力（图10）。

L08-P008-012 | 英文原文

WANG, WEN, WHITFIELD 15

中文译文 | L08-P008-012

王文，惠特菲尔德 15

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L08-P009-002 | 英文原文

fig. 12 Mural-painting fragment showing deity holding a peacock feather. Probably from Khotan, dates uncertain. Painting on plaster, 11 × 10 in. (28 × 25.5 cm). British Museum, London (1925,0619,0.27)

中文译文 | L08-P009-002

图12 壁画碎片，显示一位神祇手持孔雀羽毛。可能来自和田，年代不详。为石膏上绘制的作品，尺寸为11 × 10英寸（28 × 25.5厘米）。大英博物馆，伦敦（1925,0619,0.27）

L08-P009-003 | 英文原文



fig. 11 Banner with Vajrapāṇi. From Dunhuang, Guiyijun period (848–1036). Ink and color on silk, 21⅝ × 5¾ in. (55 × 14.5 cm). British Museum, London (1919,0101,0.103) (Ch.lvi.002)

fig. 13 Plate with a hunting scene from the tale of Bahram Gur (r. 420–438) and Azadeh. Sasanian, ca. 5th century. Silver with mercury gilding, H. 1⅝ in. (4.1 cm); Diam. 7⅞ in. (20.1 cm). The Metropolitan Museum of Art, Purchase, Lila Acheson Wallace Gift, 1994 (1994.402)

中文译文 | L08-P009-003

图13：一幅描绘巴赫拉姆·古尔故事中的狩猎场景与阿扎德赫的壁画。萨珊时期，约5世纪。银器镀汞装饰，高1 5/8英寸（4.1厘米）；直径7 7/8英寸（20.1厘米）。大都会艺术博物馆收藏，莉拉·艾奇森·华莱士捐赠，1994年（1994.402）图11：一幅描绘伏藏王的旗帜画。来自敦煌，龟兹时期（848–1036年）。在丝绸上用墨与色彩绘制，尺寸为21 5/8 × 5 3/4英寸（55 × 14.5厘米）。大英博物馆，伦敦（1919,0101,0.103）（Ch.lvi.002）

L08-P009-004 | 英文原文

SILK BANNERS ON THE SILK ROAD

Of the silk banners recovered by Stein from Mogao Cave 17, a group of ten that were gathered during his second expedition serves as a particularly instructive point of comparison for the Mahāmāyūrī banner. The group is now divided between the British Museum in London (three paintings) and the National Museum of India in New Delhi (seven paintings).[21] The works display stylistic traits of Khotanese and Himalayan artistic traditions, the latter of which reflects on the Tibetan occupation of Khotan between the seventh and ninth centuries. Like the Mahāmāyūrī banner, one from this latter group is inscribed on the verso. The Tibetan inscription identifies the deity represented on the recto as Vajrapāṇi (fig. 11).[22] The writing of inscriptions on the verso rather than on the recto is more commonly seen

中文译文 | L08-P009-004 | 原文注号：21、22

丝绸路上的丝绸旗帜 斯坦因在莫高第17窟发现的十幅丝绸旗帜中，有三幅是他第二次考察时采集的，这些旗帜对于孔雀明王的旗帜具有重要的对比意义。目前，这些作品分别藏于伦敦大英博物馆（三幅）和新德里印度国家博物馆（七幅）。这些作品展现了和田与喜马拉雅艺术传统的风格特征，后者反映了七至九世纪西藏对和田的统治情况。与孔雀明王旗帜一样，其中一幅作品也刻有背面文字。藏文铭文指出正面所绘神像为金刚萨埵（图11）。在背面刻写铭文而非正面则更为常见。

L08-P009-005 | 英文原文

among Himalayan *thangka*s, portable Buddhist paintings that are usually painted on a heavier canvas ground. The Mahāmāyūrī banner and the ten banners from the

中文译文 | L08-P009-005

在喜马拉雅唐卡中，这些是通常绘制在更厚画布上的便携佛教绘画。孔雀明王的旗帜以及十面旗帜来自

L08-P009-006 | 英文原文

British Museum and National Museum of India do not have cartouches, further distinguishing them from banners that were inscribed in Chinese.

中文译文 | L08-P009-006

大英博物馆和印度国家博物馆没有画框装饰，这使其与刻有中文铭文的旗帜有所区别

L08-P009-007 | 英文原文

The paintings in this group reveal a number of consistencies, despite subtle variations in the color and quality of the silk ground.[23] Similar to the Mahāmāyūrī banner, they feature a single bodhisattva standing in contrapposto under a round canopy atop a lotus pedestal, wearing a dhoti and scarves and holding a ritual implement, while adorned with gold jewelry and peaked crowns. The use of bright colors and the lavish attention paid to the linear, ikat-like patterned effects of the textiles are particularly striking.[24]

中文译文 | L08-P009-007 | 原文注号：23、24

这组绘画尽管丝绸底料的颜色与质地存在细微差异，却呈现出诸多一致性。23 与孔雀明王旗帜类似，这些作品也描绘了一位单身菩萨站在圆顶伞下、立于莲花基座上，身着长袍与围巾，手持法器，并佩戴金饰与尖顶冠冕；鲜艳的色彩以及对织物线性纹路与编织式图案的精致处理，尤为引人注目。24

L08-P009-008 | 英文原文

Does the Mahāmāyūrī banner belong to this group? It shares the motif of a standing deity on a lotus pedestal, and the borders have similarly been sewn rather than painted. However, there are important differences. Although roughly the same height, the Mahāmāyūrī banner is nearly twice as wide as the ten banners in London and New Delhi. Its painting style also displays a greater sense of refinement, and the floral textile pattern is distinct from the striped ikat textiles of the other banners. Nevertheless, the Khotanese stylistic elements of the Mahāmāyūrī banner are corroborated by visual and epigraphic evidence stemming from the painting itself. Several features in the painting suggest that it was made in Khotan, or in Dunhuang by a Khotanese artist or one familiar with Khotanese stylistic idioms. A mural-painting fragment probably from a site in Khotan shows a peacock feather wielded in the hand of a deity (fig. 12). The three-dimensional modeling in the face and body of

中文译文 | L08-P009-008

孔雀明王的旗帜是否属于这一组？它同样具有站立于莲花基座上的神像图案，边框也以缝制而非绘画的方式呈现。然而，两者存在重要差异。虽然高度大致相同，但孔雀明王的旗帜宽度几乎是伦敦和新德里十面旗帜的两倍。其绘画风格也更为精致，花卉纺织图案也与其他旗帜的条纹伊卡特织物不同。不过，孔雀明王旗帜中的霍坦风格元素通过绘画本身及碑文证据得到证实。绘画中的某些特征表明，该作品可能是在霍坦或敦煌由霍坦艺术家或熟悉霍坦风格的人所创作。来自霍坦某遗址的壁画碎片显示，有羽毛被神手握持的场景（图12）。人物面部和身体的三维造型

L08-P009-009 | 英文原文

the deity and in the petals of the lotus pedestal are also

中文译文 | L08-P009-009

神像与莲台的花瓣也同样

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L08-P010-001 | 英文原文

characteristic of the Khotanese painting style, as are the broad facial features, high arched eyebrows, heavily lidded eyes, and long nose bridge of Mahāmāyūrī and the seated Buddha in the banner head (see fig. 5).[25] The painting further displays visual evidence of the

中文译文 | L08-P010-001 | 原文注号：25

孔雀明王及旗帜上的坐佛所具有的宽大面部特征、高弧状眉毛、浓密的眼罩以及长鼻梁等特征，这些都是和田绘画风格的特点（见图5）。25 该画还展现了视觉证据……

L08-P010-002 | 英文原文

cross-cultural exchanges that typically characterize Khotanese painting by the dramatically billowing ribbons attached to either side of the crown, for example, which originate from those worn by Sasanian kings (fig. 13) and demonstrate the afterlife of earlier Iranian motifs.[26]

中文译文 | L08-P010-002 | 原文注号：26

跨文化交流在霍坦绘画中尤为常见，其特征在于王冠两侧有剧烈飘动的卷带，这些卷带源自萨珊王朝国王所戴的装饰（图13），从而展现了早期伊朗图案的延续性。26

L08-P010-003 | 英文原文

The lightweight nature and portability of painted banners offer a glimpse into how Central Asian iconography and painting styles were transmitted along the silk routes. Importantly, as our knowledge of Khotanese painting is largely informed by mural-painting fragments and paintings executed on wooden panels, the Mahāmāyūrī banner provides valuable insight into Khotanese visual culture and Buddhist practice. Equally

中文译文 | L08-P010-003

绘制在横幅的轻巧特性与便携性，让我们得以一窥中亚图像与绘画风格是如何通过丝绸之路传播的。重要的是，由于我们对和田绘画的了解主要来自壁画碎片和木板上绘制的作品，因此孔雀明王横幅为了解和田视觉文化与佛教实践提供了宝贵的视角。

L08-P010-004 | 英文原文

of value, the association of the Mahāmāyūrī banner with a Khotanese donor is demonstrated by a close reading of the painting's hitherto unexamined inscription.

中文译文 | L08-P010-004

具有价值的是，通过仔细研读该绘画中迄今未被研究的铭文，可以证明孔雀明王旗帜与和田捐赠者之间的联系。

L08-P010-005 | 英文原文

A KHOTANESE OFFICIAL'S DONATION

中文译文 | L08-P010-005

和田官员的捐赠

L08-P010-006 | 英文原文

Yaraiṣä nāmai āmācä haiṣṭe tcahauryāṃ parṣāṃ

中文译文 | L08-P010-006

Yarais. ä nāmai āmācä hais. t.e tcahauryām. pars. ām.

L08-P010-007 | 英文原文

ba'ysuśte brrī[ye. . . .

(The *āmāca*-official named *Yaraiṣa* donated, in love

中文译文 | L08-P010-007

ba'ysuśte brrī[ye. . . . (名为Yarais的amāca官员以爱捐赠……)

L08-P010-008 | 英文原文

of bodhi of the Four Assemblies. . . .)

中文译文 | L08-P010-008

四部会议菩提……

L08-P010-009 | 英文原文

This inscription on the Mahāmāyūrī banner was written

中文译文 | L08-P010-009

孔雀明王旗帜上的铭文是这么写的

L08-P010-010 | 英文原文

on the left edge of the verso side of the painting (fig. 14) in Khotanese, a middle-Iranian language, and in the Brāhmī script. After the painting was completed, the writer must have turned the painting sideways and inscribed the text from left to right.[27] The text begins below the canopy and above the image of Mahāmāyūrī. The first syllable is unclear, but there is space for only

中文译文 | L08-P010-010 | 原文注号：27

在孔雀明王画的背面左侧边缘（图14），使用了霍坦语这种中伊朗语言，并采用婆罗米文书写。在画作完成之后，作者必定将画作翻面，从左至右刻写文字。27 文字位于遮阳篷下方与孔雀明王图像上方。第一个音节不清楚，但空间仅能容纳……

L08-P010-011 | 英文原文

one syllable in front of the second and third syllables, which are clearly *rai* and *ṣä*. The first syllable may be tentatively read as *ya*. Thus, the first three syllables, which constitute the name of the donor, may be recon-

中文译文 | L08-P010-011

第二个和第三个音节之前有一个音节，显然为 rai 和 s.ä。第一个音节可暂且视为 ya。因此，构成捐赠者名字的前三个音节可以重新解读为……

L08-P010-012 | 英文原文

structed as **Yaraiṣa*.[28] Due to damage, it is impossible to know how much text is missing at the end of the inscription. The last, partially visible syllable is that of *brrī*, no doubt the beginning of the word *brrīya*, meaning "love." The space of the torn section of the banner would have allowed for several more words. One would assume, based on similar inscriptions, that the intentions of the donor might have been expressed. The missing part might have also included the date when

中文译文 | L08-P010-012 | 原文注号：28

以 *Yarais.a.28* 形式呈现。由于损坏，无法确定铭文末尾缺失了多少文字。最后部分勉强可见的音节为 brrī，无疑就是"brīya"这个词的开始，意为"爱"。旗帜被撕裂的部分空间本可以容纳更多文字。根据类似的铭文推测，捐赠者的意图可能已被表达出来。缺失的部分也可能包含日期信息。

L08-P010-013 | 英文原文

the painting was made, but this scenario is less likely because the date is usually given at the beginning of a dedicatory inscription.[29]

中文译文 | L08-P010-013 | 原文注号：29

该绘画确实是在此时期创作的，但这一假设不太可能，因为日期通常出现在献词铭文的开头。29

L08-P010-014 | 英文原文

The meaning of the extant part of the inscription is otherwise clear: an official with the title of *āmāca*, possibly named Yaraiṣa, donated something "in love of bodhi of the Four Assemblies." The verb used here, *hatīś-*, has the general meaning "to give."[30] But in religious contexts, it often means more specifically "to donate," which better fits the context of this inscription.[31] The inscription does not specify what this *āmāca* official donated, but it is very likely that it was the painting on which this inscription was written. The phrase "in love

中文译文 | L08-P010-014 | 原文注号：30、31

现存铭文部分的意义十分明确：一位名为āmāca的官员，可能名叫Yarais.a，以“追求四部集会的正道”之心捐赠了某物。此处使用的动词hatīś-通常意为“给予”。但在宗教语境中，它更具体地指“捐赠”，这更符合此铭文的背景。铭文并未说明这位āmāca官员捐赠了什么，但很可能就是那幅被刻在铭文上的画。短语“追求

L08-P010-015 | 英文原文

of bodhi” is commonly found in Khotanese donation texts. For instance, when commissioning a text about the Buddha’s former births, titled *Jātakastava*, the donor “ordered it to be written in love of bodhi.”[32] The phrase “Four Assemblies” refers to the four groups of Buddhists: monks, nuns, laymen, and laywomen. The genitive plural construction “of the Four Assemblies” shows that the donation was not merely for the personal benefit of the donor but that of all Buddhist devotees.

中文译文 | L08-P010-015 | 原文注号：32

“菩提之爱”常见于和田的捐赠文献中。例如，在委托撰写关于佛陀前世生辰的文献《劫传颂》时，捐赠者便要求“以菩提之爱来书写此文”。32 “四众”指的是佛教徒的四类群体：僧侣、尼姑、在家男众和在家女众。“四众”的属格复数结构表明，此捐赠并非仅为捐赠者个人利益所用，而是为所有佛教信徒的利益。

L08-P010-016 | 英文原文

The title *āmāca* held by the donor of this painting derives from the Sanskrit term *āmātya*, meaning “minister.”[33] In eighth-century secular documents from Khotan, the term was often used in combination with

中文译文 | L08-P010-016 | 原文注号：33

这幅画的捐赠者所持有的“āmāca”标题源自梵文词汇“āmātya”，意为“大臣”。33在八世纪霍坦的世俗文献中，该词常与……结合使用。

L08-P010-017 | 英文原文

other titles to denote an official of the highest status in the government of Khotan.[34] Because of the centrality of this title in the Khotanese bureaucracy, it also appeared in Chinese (*amozhi*) and Tibetan (*a-ma-cha*), the languages of the two empires that ruled Khotan between the seventh and ninth centuries. In Khotanese documents from Dunhuang, most of which date to the tenth century, *āmāca* remained an important title.[35] For instance, in the preface to the *Jātakastava*, the author of the text prays for the people of Khotan: after mentioning the king, the queen, and the princes, the author continues to list "the great prime minister (Khotanese: *tsai-śyāṃ*; Chinese: *zaixiang*), *āmāca* the servant of the god," as well as "the good, the bad, and the middle, all the people in the country."[36] From the hierarchical sequencing of the prayer it is clear that in the tenth century, *āmāca*, while a lower title than prime minister, was still one of the most important titles in Khotan. It is therefore fitting that an *āmāca* should have had the means to commission such a lavish silk painting. But how did a painting commissioned by a Khotanese official end up in the library cave in Dunhuang? To answer this question, we need to place the life of this painting in the context of the political history of Central Asia in the ninth to the tenth century.

中文译文 | L08-P010-017 | 原文注号：34、35、36

其他标题用于指代霍坦政府中最高级别的官员。由于这一头衔在霍坦官僚体系中的中心性地位，它也出现在第七至九世纪统治霍坦的两个帝国所使用的语言——汉语和藏语中。在来自敦煌的霍坦文献中，大部分可追溯到十世纪，āmāca仍是一个重要的头衔。例如，在《本生经》的序言中，文本作者为霍坦人民祈祷：在提到国王、王后和王子之后，作者继续列举"伟大的首相（霍坦语：tsai-syām；汉语：宰相），作为神之仆人的āmāca"，以及"善良的、邪恶的、中等的人，这个国家中的所有人"。从祈祷文的等级排序来看，显然在十世纪时，虽然āmāca比首相处于较低级别，但它仍然是霍坦最重要的头衔之一。因此，一个拥有āmāca头衔的人能够委托绘制如此精美的丝绸画也就不足为奇了。但是，一幅由霍坦官员委托绘制的画作究竟是如何被保存在敦煌的藏经洞中的呢？要回答这个问题，我们需要将这幅画的流传历史置于九至十世纪中亚政治历史的背景下进行考察。

L08-P010-018 | 英文原文

WANG, WEN, WHITFIELD 17

中文译文 | L08-P010-018

王文，惠特菲尔德 17

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L08-P011-002 | 英文原文

fig. 14 Inscription from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (verso; see fig. 1 for recto)

中文译文 | L08-P011-002

图14 来自孔雀明王铭文的旗帜上的刻文（背面；正面见图1）

L08-P011-003 | 英文原文

DUNHUANG AND KHOTAN: SILK ROAD ENVOYS AND BUDDHIST PATRONAGE

中文译文 | L08-P011-003

敦煌与霍屯：丝绸之路的使者与佛教庇护

L08-P011-004 | 英文原文

There was an era of political fragmentation across Asia

中文译文 | L08-P011-004

亚洲曾存在政治分裂的时期

L08-P011-005 | 英文原文

during the ninth and tenth centuries. The three ruling empires—the Tibetan Empire (618–842), the Uyghur Empire (744–840), and the Tang dynasty (618–907)—that dominated Central Asia in the previous centuries were defeated in the mid- to late ninth century.[37] Both Khotan and Dunhuang were under the rule of the Tibetan Empire until the mid-ninth century, when they

中文译文 | L08-P011-005 | 原文注号：37

在九世纪和十世纪期间。过去几个世纪中统治中亚的三个帝国——吐蕃帝国（618–842年）、维吾尔帝国（744–840年）和唐朝（618–907年）——在九世纪中晚期被击败。37 和田和敦煌均处于吐蕃帝国的统治之下，直到九世纪中期才被取代。

L08-P011-006 | 英文原文

each acquired political independence. While it is very likely that Khotan and Dunhuang exchanged envoys in the ninth century, the earliest documentation about such an event dates to 901.[38] The diplomatic relations between the two states were further solidified during the tenth century by intermarriage of the Khotanese royal

中文译文 | L08-P011-006 | 原文注号：38

各自获得了政治独立。虽然在9世纪敦煌与和田很可能存在使者往来，但关于此类事件的最早记录可追溯到901.38年。10世纪期间，通过和田王室的通婚，两国外交关系进一步巩固。

L08-P011-007 | 英文原文

family and the Cao family that ruled Dunhuang.[39] As a result, there was no major warfare between these two states for at least a century, and images of the kings and queens of Khotan appeared next to images of the lords of Dunhuang in the Dunhuang caves.[40] Although Dunhuang and Khotan were separated by about a thou-

中文译文 | L08-P011-007 | 原文注号：39、40

家族与统治敦煌的曹氏家族。39 因此，这两个国家至少有一个世纪内没有重大战争，在敦煌洞窟中，和田的国王和王后的图像与敦煌的贵族图像并列出现。40 尽管敦煌和和田相距约一千里之远，

L08-P011-008 | 英文原文

sand miles (or 1,564 kilometers on the closest modern highway), they had a uniquely close relationship in the ninth and tenth centuries.

中文译文 | L08-P011-008

尽管两地相距约一千六百五十四公里（或1,564公里，以最近的公路为准），但在九世纪和十世纪期间，它们却保持着极为紧密的关系。

L08-P011-009 | 英文原文

This relationship was sustained by a frequent exchange of personnel. Scholars have noticed that a large number of the Khotanese-language documents found in the library cave in Dunhuang are reports by Khotanese envoys.[41] The Dunhuang government and monasteries often provided accommodations for Khotanese envoys and monks.[42] Similarly, many Dunhuang residents also traveled to Khotan, evidenced by the several contracts made by these travelers.[43] As a result, there was likely a constant presence of Khotanese elites, including princes, princesses, government officials, and Buddhist monks in Dunhuang during the ninth and tenth centuries.[44] At the same time, these Khotanese luminaries engaged with the local society of Dunhuang as Buddhist patrons. Dunhuang was known as a particularly important place for Buddhist activities, and in Khotanese texts, Dunhuang is sometimes described as a "land of god" (Khotanese: *gyasta/jasta-kṣīra*).[45] Many Khotanese trav-

中文译文 | L08-P011-009 | 原文注号：41、42、43、44、45

这种关系通过频繁的人员交流得以维持。学者们注意到，在敦煌的藏经洞中发现的大量龟兹语文献，均为龟兹使者的报告。41 敦煌政府与寺院经常为龟兹使者及僧侣提供住宿。42 同样，许多敦煌居民也前往龟兹，这些旅行者签订的几份合同便证明了这一点。43 因此，在9世纪和10世纪期间，龟兹精英阶层——包括王子、公主、政府官员和佛教僧侣——很可能长期存在于敦煌。44 同时，这些龟兹名人作为佛教赞助人与敦煌当地社会进行互动。敦煌作为佛教活动的重要场所而著称，在龟兹文献中，敦煌有时被描述为“神之之地”（龟兹语：gyasta/jasta-ks.īra）。45 许多龟兹旅行者……

L08-P011-010 | 英文原文

elers who visited Dunhuang were monks. According to an envoy's report, for instance, a diplomatic mission to China from Khotan, led by a certain Ana Saṃgaa, had eleven *ācārya* (Buddhist teachers) and six *gṛhastha* (householders).[46] But even laypeople like these house-

中文译文 | L08-P011-010 | 原文注号：46

访问敦煌的修行者都是僧侣。例如，根据一位使者的报告，由某位阿纳·萨姆加领导的来自霍坦的外交使团，拥有十一名阿阇梨和六位居士。但像这些在家众这样的俗人也有。

L08-P011-011 | 英文原文

holders were probably Buddhists. Khotanese monks and laypeople were engaged in Buddhist devotional activities, such as the lighting of lamps, the organization of vegetarian feasts at Buddhist monasteries, the building of stupas, and the construction of Buddhist caves. For instance, a Khotanese envoy named Ṣaṃdū "went around the city to 121 shrines" and "sent 502 litres

中文译文 | L08-P011-011

持有者很可能是佛教徒。和田的僧侣与在家信徒参与各种佛教修行活动，如点灯、在佛教寺院举办素食宴席、建造佛塔以及修建佛教洞窟。例如，一位名为S.am. dū的和田使者“游历了城市中的121座神祠”，并“送去了502升圣水”

L08-P011-012 | 英文原文

of oil for use in all the temples situated throughout the city" when he was in Dunhuang.[47]

中文译文 | L08-P011-012 | 原文注号：47

他在前往敦煌时，带去了“用于全城各寺庙的油”47。

L08-P011-013 | 英文原文

One of the most important and visible ways Khotanese people engaged with the Buddhist communities in Dunhuang was through the making of paintings. A prime minister from Khotan commissioned paintings in the Dunhuang caves to pray for good relations between Dunhuang and Khotan and the health of both sover-

中文译文 | L08-P011-013

敦煌地区敦煌人与佛教团体互动的最重要且最明显的方式之一，就是创作绘画。敦煌的一位首相在敦煌洞中委托创作绘画，以祈求敦煌与敦煌之间建立良好关系，并祝愿双方繁荣健康。

L08-P011-014 | 英文原文

eigns. In this prayer, he described the painting process as "Yielding the precious treasure of exotic nature, I sum-

中文译文 | L08-P011-014

在这份祈祷文中，他描述绘画制作过程为"获取异域自然的珍贵财富"。

L08-P011-015 | 英文原文

moned crafty artisans of the red and black colors. [The

中文译文 | L08-P011-015

红色与黑色色彩的工艺工匠们。 [The

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L08-P012-001 | 英文原文

artisans] drew the ornamentations of *tathāgata*, and painted the true image of bodhisattvas."[48] Among the nearly five hundred caves in the Mogao Buddhist Cave Complex, several have been identified as having been either repaired or constructed by Khotanese donors.[49]

中文译文 | L08-P012-001 | 原文注号：48、49

工匠们绘制了如来般的装饰图案，并描绘出了菩萨的真实形象。48在莫高窟佛教洞窟群中的近五百个洞窟中，有若干洞窟被确认是由和田捐赠者修复或建造的。49

L08-P012-002 | 英文原文

On the topic of the sponsorship of paintings by Khotanese donors, one letter is particularly relevant to the painted banner under discussion. In 964, a female Khotanese servant residing in Dunhuang wrote a letter to Khotan, in which she asked the princess and prime minister to send support for the construction of a cave shrine. Among the things she asked for were "colors for painting" (Chinese, *huacaise*) and "colored thread for making an embroidered image for the Sanjie Monastery" (Chinese, *Sanjiesi xiuxiang xianse*).[50] The "embroidered image for the Sanjie Monastery" likely refers to items that were donated to the monastery. As historian Rong Xinjiang has shown, the Sanjie Monastery was the origi-

中文译文 | L08-P012-002 | 原文注号：50

关于和田捐赠者对绘画的赞助问题，有一封信与所讨论的绘画横幅密切相关。公元964年，居住在敦煌的一位和田女仆给和田写了一封信，她在信中请求公主和首相为建造洞窟寺提供支持。她所要求的物品包括“绘画颜料”（中文：huacaise）以及“用于制作三界寺刺绣图案的彩色线”（中文：Sanjiesi xiuxiang xianse）。50 “三界寺刺绣图案”很可能指被捐赠给该寺的物品。正如历史学家荣新疆所表明的，三界寺是……

L08-P012-003 | 英文原文

nal repository of many manuscripts and artifacts that were later deposited in the Dunhuang library cave.[51] The letter from 964 provides a firm example of Khotanese officials donating religious images to the monastery, and in a similar way, the Mahāmāyūrī banner may also have been donated to the Sanjie Monastery, after which it was deposited in the library cave. The *āmāca*

中文译文 | L08-P012-003 | 原文注号：51

一个包含众多写本与文物的藏经洞，这些物品后来被存放在敦煌藏经洞中。51 964年的信件为和田官员向寺院捐赠宗教图像提供了确凿例证；同样，孔雀明王旗帜也可能被捐赠给三界寺，之后便被存放在藏经洞中。āmāca

L08-P012-004 | 英文原文

official *Yaraiṣa could have had this painted banner made in Khotan and brought to Dunhuang, or he could have traveled to Dunhuang himself and commissioned the banner there. In either scenario, the distinctive Khotanese style reflects the impact of Khotanese visual

中文译文 | L08-P012-004

官方官员*雅拉伊斯·阿可能让这面绘有图案的旗帜在和田制作后带到敦煌，或者他可能亲自前往敦煌并在那里定制此旗帜。无论哪种情况，独特的和田风格都反映了和田视觉艺术的影响

L08-P012-005 | 英文原文

culture upon artistic production in Dunhuang.

中文译文 | L08-P012-005

敦煌艺术创作的文化影响。

L08-P012-006 | 英文原文

The Mahāmāyūrī banner is not the only painting bearing Khotanese inscriptions that was found in the Dunhuang library cave. There are about half a dozen known examples of paintings on paper and silk with Khotanese inscriptions, and this recent acquisition by the Metropolitan Museum is a significant addition to this small but important group of materials.[52] A few common features unite the Mahāmāyūrī banner and the other pieces. First, they were commissioned by Khotanese donors, probably officials and other social

中文译文 | L08-P012-006 | 原文注号：52

孔雀明王旗帜并非在敦煌藏经洞中发现的唯一带有和田铭文的艺术品。已知约有半打作品为纸本或丝织品，上面有和田铭文，大都会博物馆此次的收藏为这一虽少但重要的资料群增添了重要组成部分。52 孔雀明王旗帜与其他作品有一些共同特征。首先，它们都是由和田捐赠者委托制作的，这些捐赠者可能是官员或其他社会人士。

L08-P012-007 | 英文原文

elites. Second, either the objects were made in Khotan, then brought to Dunhuang, or they were made in Dunhuang at the request of Khotanese donors. Thirdly, these items were likely donated to monasteries in Dunhuang, particularly the Sanjie Monastery, as offerings. Because of their similarities, the paintings merit further scholarly attention as a coherent set of materials, which will allow a better understanding of the presence and the role in Dunhuang of Khotanese art and Khotanese people.

中文译文 | L08-P012-007

精英们。其次，这些物品要么是于和田制造后运至敦煌，要么是应和田捐赠者的要求在敦煌制作。第三，这些物品很可能被作为供品赠予敦煌的寺院，尤其是三界寺。由于它们的相似性，这些绘画作为一组连贯的资料值得进一步研究，这将有助于更好地理解和田艺术与人员在敦煌的存在及其作用。

L08-P012-008 | 英文原文

THE MAHĀMĀYŪRĪ BANNER SINCE ITS DISCOVERY

In 2007, the Mahāmāyūrī banner was auctioned at Christie's, London, as part of a sale by the Andrews family, who were stated as owners of the painting through their descent from Frederick Henry Andrews.[53] Frederick Andrews had been a friend and sometime assistant to Stein from their meeting in Lahore in the late 1880s until Stein's death in 1943. During four expeditions to Central Asia between 1900 and 1930 (Andrews did not participate), Stein acquired numerous

中文译文 | L08-P012-008 | 原文注号：53

孔雀明王旗帜自被发现以来

2007年，孔雀明王旗帜在伦敦克里斯蒂拍卖行通过安德鲁斯家族的拍卖活动售出，该家族被声称通过弗雷德里克·亨利·安德鲁斯的后代关系成为这幅画的拥有者。53 弗雷德里克·安德鲁斯是斯坦因在1880年代末于拉合尔相遇后的朋友及助手，直至斯坦因于1943年去世。在1900至1930年间进行的四次中亚探险中（安德鲁斯并未参与），斯坦因获得了大量藏品。

L08-P012-009 | 英文原文

artifacts, and Andrews assisted with their cataloguing and study. If we begin with a reasonable assumption that this painting came from the library cave, then how did Andrews acquire it?[54] Did he buy the painting himself or could it have been given to him by Stein?

中文译文 | L08-P012-009 | 原文注号：54

文物，Andrews协助为其编目和开展研究。如果先作一个合理假设，认为这幅画来自藏经洞，那么Andrews是怎样取得它的？〔54〕是他自行购买，还是可能由斯坦因赠予？

L08-P012-010 | 英文原文

The former seems implausible. Andrews's financial situation was not robust.[55] It is unlikely he could have afforded the painting were it offered for sale. Second, the piece was in a fragmentary and unconserved condition when it came to Christie's. If Andrews had bought the banner either for his own pleasure or for resale, it would be a reasonable assumption that he would have had it mounted and framed—or that it would have been mounted before sale to him—to increase its worth. So, while we cannot state with certainty that Andrews did not buy this piece, it is not a well-supported hypothesis. Is it possible that it was gifted to him by Stein? It was a

中文译文 | L08-P012-010 | 原文注号：55

前者似乎难以置信。安德鲁斯的财务状况并不稳健。55 他很可能无法负担起那幅画的出售费用。其次，该作品在克里斯蒂拍卖行时处于残缺且未保存的状态。如果安德鲁斯为了个人欣赏或转售而购买该画作，可以合理假设他会将其装裱起来——或者至少在出售前就进行装裱，以提升其价值。因此，虽然我们无法确定安德鲁斯确实没有购买此作品，但这并非有充分依据的假设。有没有可能这是斯坦因赠予他的呢？

L08-P012-011 | 英文原文

condition of Stein's grants that all finds were to join museum collections in Britain and India, and he was meticulous in recording his finds in situ, making such gifts unlikely.[56]

中文译文 | L08-P012-011 | 原文注号：56

斯坦因的捐赠条件规定，所有发现物都须归入英国和印度的博物馆收藏，且他在现场就记录这些发现物，因此这种捐赠行为几乎不可能发生。56

L08-P012-012 | 英文原文

If Andrews did not purchase the painting or receive it as a gift, and it was originally part of Stein's collection, then how might it have found its way to Andrews? As argued below, it is plausible that he acquired it accidentally because of the nature of this particular collection. In order to understand the situation, some background

中文译文 | L08-P012-012

如果安德鲁斯没有购买那幅画，也没有作为礼物收到它，而它原本属于斯坦因的收藏品，那么它究竟是如何出现在安德鲁斯手中的呢？如下所述，很有可能他是由于该收藏品的特性而偶然获得了它。为了理解这一情况，需要了解一些背景信息。

L08-P012-013 | 英文原文

on the relationship between Stein and Andrews and on the acquisition and documentation of material from Dunhuang is necessary.

中文译文 | L08-P012-013

关于斯坦因与安德鲁斯之间的关系以及敦煌文物的获取和记录情况。

L08-P012-014 | 英文原文

Andrews, a graduate of Saint Martin's School of Art in London, arrived in Lahore in 1890 to become vice principal of Mayo School of Arts. In Lahore, he met

中文译文 | L08-P012-014

安德鲁斯是伦敦圣马丁艺术学校的毕业生，他于1890年来到拉合尔，担任梅奥艺术学校副校长。在拉合尔期间，他遇到了

L08-P012-015 | 英文原文

Stein, with whom he remained lifelong friends. Stein was meticulous about recordkeeping and gave most of the artifacts that he excavated a unique site mark when in the field, writing on the artifact itself. He kept lists of the site marks so that, when unpacked, the material could be cross-checked. These lists were also published in his expedition reports, so that all the material was deposited in public collections.

中文译文 | L08-P012-015

斯坦因，他与他成为了一生的朋友。斯坦因对记录工作极为细致，他在野外发掘出的大部分文物上都会留下独特的标记，并直接在文物上书写。他会保存这些标记清单，以便解包后能够相互核对。这些清单也被收录在他的考察报告之中，从而所有文物都能被存入公共收藏馆。

L08-P012-016 | 英文原文

中文译文 | L08-P012-016

原PDF第13页（原刊第20页）

L08-P013-002 | 英文原文

In 1907, Stein visited Dunhuang on his second expedition (1906–8) and acquired thousands of manuscripts and hundreds of textiles and portable paintings on silk, paper, and hemp from the library cave. This material was not acquired through excavation but in rushed and clandestine circumstances in which Stein and his expedition assistant and interpreter, Jiang Xiaowan (d. 1922), were given bundles of material by

中文译文 | L08-P013-002

1907年，斯坦因在第二次考察（1906–8年）中访问了敦煌，从藏经洞中获取了数千件写本以及数百卷束，这些物品包括丝绸、纸张和麻布制成的纺织品与绘画作品。这些资料并非通过挖掘获得，而是在匆忙且秘密的情况下获得的；当时斯坦因及其考察助手兼翻译员蒋孝琬（逝于1922年）得到了大量此类材料。

L08-P013-003 | 英文原文

the unofficial guardian of the cave, Wang Yuanlu (ca. 1849–1931), to examine secretly.[57] These items were inscribed with a site mark, such as Ch.i.001, "Ch." indicating Dunhuang (Ch'ien-fo tung), "i" as the bundle number, and "001" as the serial number (although it is probable that the serial number was added later).[58]

中文译文 | L08-P013-003 | 原文注号：57、58

洞窟的非官方守护者王圆箓（约1849–1931年），秘密地进行了考察。57 这些物品上刻有地点标记，如Ch.i.001，"Ch."表示敦煌（Ch'ien-fo tung），"i"为卷束编号，"001"为序列号（尽管很可能该序列号是后来添加的）。58

L08-P013-004 | 英文原文

When preparing for their departure from the field in July 1908, Jiang started to unpack, number, list, and repack all regular bundles, making index slips as he went along.[59] He only had time to record about one-third of the material and although his index slips were used during the unpacking at the British Museum, the authors of this article have been unable to locate them. Consequently, unlike other material, there was no complete master list to use for checking when unpacking the Dunhuang material in London, nor did all of the material contain a site mark.[60]

中文译文 | L08-P013-004 | 原文注号：59、60

1908年7月，考察队准备离开野外时，蒋孝琬开始拆开所有常规卷束，逐一编号、列单并重新包装，同时制作索引签。〔59〕他只来得及记录约三分之一的材料。尽管大英博物馆拆箱时曾使用这些索引签，本文作者却未能找到它们。因此，与其他材料不同，在伦敦拆开敦煌材料时，并没有一份完整总清单可供核查，而且也并非所有材料都带有地点标记。〔60〕

L08-P013-005 | 英文原文

When Stein's finds arrived in England in 1909, Andrews was employed by the India Office Library, London, to unpack, sort, and list them. Stein notes in July 1910 that seventy to eighty banners had been flattened.[61] Most of the paintings required some basic conservation before they could be identified and catalogued. In many cases, pieces of paper or silk were discovered in crumpled balls or stuck together with other pieces, either deliberately—old textiles and paper being used for patching—or accidentally, as a result of being squashed together in storage.

中文译文 | L08-P013-005 | 原文注号：61

1909年，斯坦因所得文物抵达英国，Andrews受伦敦印度事务部图书馆雇用，负责拆包、分类与列单。斯坦因于1910年7月记下，已有70至80件幡被展平。〔61〕大多数绘画在能够辨识和编目之前，都需要先作基本保护处理。许多纸片或绢片被发现时，蜷成一团，或与其他碎片粘在一起；这种情况有时出于有意为之——旧纺织品和纸张被用来修补——有时则是储存中挤压造成的意外。

L08-P013-006 | 英文原文

The scholar Raphaël Petrucci compiled two sections of a catalogue on the paintings, which were published as Appendix E to Stein's expedition report.[62] Laurence Binyon, assistant keeper in charge of the Sub-Department of Oriental Prints and Manuscripts at the British Museum, and his assistant, Arthur Waley, took

中文译文 | L08-P013-006 | 原文注号：62

学者拉斐尔·佩特鲁奇编制了关于这些画作的两部分目录，该目录作为斯坦因考察报告的附录E被发表。62 大英博物馆东方版画与写本分部的负责人助理劳伦斯·比尼恩及其助手亚瑟·韦利也参与了此事。

L08-P013-007 | 英文原文

over this work after Petrucci's early death. A list of all the identified paintings was prepared for the end of the chapter on Dunhuang, but the banner is mentioned neither here nor in the Appendix.

中文译文 | L08-P013-007

在佩特鲁奇早逝后，这项工作继续进行。关于敦煌章节末尾，列出了所有已识别的绘画作品清单，但该标题既未在此处提及，也未在附录中出现。

L08-P013-008 | 英文原文

Stein's second expedition was funded jointly by the India Office and the British Museum, with the agreement that the finds would be divided: three-fifths to India and two-fifths to the British Museum. In 1918–19, the selection for India, still in London, was packed into

中文译文 | L08-P013-008

斯坦因的第二次考察由印度办公室与大英博物馆共同资助，约定将发现物按比例分配：五分之三归印度，五分之二归大英博物馆。1918-19年间，仍在伦敦的印度相关选集被打包寄往印度。

L08-P013-009 | 英文原文

sixty-seven crates and sent to the India Store Depot in Lambeth, London, for safekeeping during World War I.[63] Those destined for the British Museum were

中文译文 | L08-P013-009 | 原文注号：63

67箱文物被送往伦敦兰贝斯区的印度仓库，以在第一次世界大战期间妥善保管。63 那些将用于大英博物馆的文物

L08-P013-010 | 英文原文

also packed for safeguarding, and in 1919 they were acquisitioned into the British Museum collections,[64] and the others were shipped to India.[65] Again, the banner was not listed among any of these records.

中文译文 | L08-P013-010 | 原文注号：64、65

此外，为了保护，它们也被打包保存，并于1919年被纳入大英博物馆的藏品中，64 其余的则被运往印度。65 同样，这面旗帜并未出现在任何这些记录中。

L08-P013-011 | 英文原文

However, this does not mean it was not from Stein's second expedition. By no means had all the material been conserved at this time and some remained in a state that conservators at the time did not feel able to tackle. In these early years, many of the original bundles are marked as having been returned from conservation as untreatable.[66] So, it is possible that the painting was among the second expedition material kept at the British Museum in an unidentified state. Furthermore, material from Stein's third expedition (1916–18) was sent to British India to be conserved, listed, and prepared for acquisition. Stein had acquired more material from Dunhuang on this expedition, and while there is no evidence of paintings or banners among them, it is not impossible that some of the material included unconserved fragments, such as the banner.[67]

中文译文 | L08-P013-011 | 原文注号：66、67

然而，这并不意味着这件绘幡一定不属于斯坦因第二次考察所得。当时，远非所有材料都完成了保护处理，有些材料的状况甚至使当时的修复人员感到无从下手。在早期记录中，许多原装卷束被标记为因无法处理而从修复环节退回。〔66〕因此，这幅绘画可能属于第二次考察所得材料，只是以尚未辨识的状态留在大英博物馆。此外，斯坦因第三次考察（1916—1918）所得材料，被送往英属印度接受保护处理、列单并准备入藏。斯坦因在此次考察中又从敦煌取得了一些材料；虽然没有证据表明其中有绘画或幡，但不能排除其中包含尚未修复的残片，例如这件绘幡。〔67〕

L08-P013-012 | 英文原文

It is certain that the painting is not described in Stein's published reports, nor in any of the unpublished lists and correspondence, strongly suggesting that it was not recognized at this time. The reason could be that the work was either pasted onto the back of another painting or hidden between outer wrappers or remained lost in a bundle. It is also possible that the painting was mixed in with material that Andrews had at home. For a scholar to work from home was quite common at this time, and items from the Stein collections were often sent to specialists in London and farther afield. Andrews undoubtedly worked in this manner, as is evi-

中文译文 | L08-P013-012

可以确定的是，斯坦因已经出版的考察报告，以及任何未刊清单与通信中，都没有描述这幅绘画；这强烈暗示它在当时尚未被辨识出来。可能的原因包括：它被贴在另一幅画的背面、藏在外包装夹层之中，或一直遗落在某一卷束里。也可能这幅画混入了Andrews存放在家中的材料。在当时，学者在家中工作十分常见，斯坦因收藏中的物品也经常送给伦敦及更远地区的专家研究。Andrews无疑也采用过这种工作方式，相关证据

L08-P013-013 | 英文原文

denced by later correspondence from Stein asking Andrews to look for certain items.

中文译文 | L08-P013-013

通过斯坦因后来寄来的信件要求安德鲁斯寻找某些物品而得到证明。

L08-P013-014 | 英文原文

Could such an item have remained with Andrews and only later been unfolded to be revealed as an important painting? It is not far-fetched to suggest that Andrews, with his background, familiarity with the material, and knowledge of the conservation work, did this himself. But then if he discovered the piece in such a way some time after the expeditions, why did he not inform Stein about it and ensure that it was returned to the collection? Or was it discovered only after Stein's death? But then Andrews might have been expected to return it to the museum.[68]

中文译文 | L08-P013-014 | 原文注号：68

是否可能有这样一件物品一直留在Andrews手中，直到后来展开，才显露为一幅重要绘画？考虑到Andrews的经历、他对材料的熟悉程度以及对保护工作的了解，认为是他本人完成这件事，并非牵强附会。但如果他在考察结束后一段时间以这种方式发现了它，为何没有通知斯坦因，并确保将它归还原收藏？还是说，它直到斯坦因去世后才被发现？不过，即便如此，人们仍可能期待Andrews把它归还博物馆。〔68〕

L08-P013-015 | 英文原文

We cannot at present, and might never, be able to answer these questions. But it remains most probable that the banner was from the library cave at Dunhuang,

中文译文 | L08-P013-015

目前我们无法，也或许永远无法回答这些问题。但很有可能是那面旗帜来自敦煌的藏经洞。

原PDF第14页（原刊第21页）

L08-P014-001 | 英文原文

acquired by Stein either in 1907 or from 1913 to 1916, but then in a condition unrecognizable as a fine painting. It is possible that—still unrecognized—it accidentally remained in Andrews's possession and only came to light after Stein's death in 1943, and that Andrews either forgot about it or died before it could be unfolded. The subsequent arrival of the banner at the Metropolitan Museum thus closes the circle on the intriguing journey

中文译文 | L08-P014-001

由斯坦因于1907年或1913年至1916年间取得，但当时的保存状况使人无法辨认出它是一幅精美绘画。一种可能是：这幅画在尚未被识别的情况下，意外留在Andrews手中，直到斯坦因于1943年去世后才重见天日；而Andrews或许忘记了它，或在它得以展开之前便已去世。绘幡此后进入大都会艺术博物馆，至此也使这件重要绢本绘幡引人入胜的旅程构成一个完整的循环

L08-P014-002 | 英文原文

of this important painted silk banner, from its initial production, its circulation within the cultural milieu of medieval Silk Road oasis cities, and finally, its acquisition in the early twentieth century to the present day.

中文译文 | L08-P014-002

关于这一重要的彩绘丝绸旗帜，从其最初制作、在中世纪丝绸之路绿洲城市的文化环境中传播，直至二十世纪初被收购并延续至今的历史。

L08-P014-003 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-003

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L08-P014-004 | 英文原文

Kurt Behrendt, Minsun Hwang, Joseph Scheier-Dolberg, Pengliang Lu, and Niv Allon at the Metropolitan Museum; Yu-ping Luk at the British Museum, London;

中文译文 | L08-P014-004

大英博物馆的 Kurt Behrendt、Minsun Hwang、Joseph Scheier-Dolberg、Pengliang Lu 和 Niv Allon；伦敦大英博物馆的 Yu-ping Luk；

L08-P014-005 | 英文原文

NOTES

中文译文 | L08-P014-005

注释

L08-P014-006 | 英文原文

1 The six translations are the Taishō Tripiṭaka texts T19.982,

中文译文 | L08-P014-006

1 这六份翻译文本即大正三藏，亦为文本 T19.982。

L08-P014-007 | 英文原文

T19.984, T19.985, T19.986, T19.987, and T19.988. The various

中文译文 | L08-P014-007

T19.984、T19.985、T19.986、T19.987和T19.988。各种

L08-P014-008 | 英文原文

recensions bear slightly different titles but share in common a focus on Mahāmāyūrī and the healing or apotropaic properties of the incantation (dharani or mantra). While these two terms are often used interchangeably, one difference between them is that mantras are usually only a few syllables and dharanis are often longer.

2 These are the translations by Śrīmitra (T19.986, T19.987)

中文译文 | L08-P014-008

校勘版本的名称略有不同，但都强调孔雀明王以及该真言（陀罗尼或真言）的治愈或护身功效。虽然这两个术语常被互换使用，但二者之间存在一个区别：真言通常只有几个音节，而陀罗尼则往往更长。2 这些即为 Śrīmitra 的翻译作品（T19.986, T19.987）。

L08-P014-009 | 英文原文

and Kumārajīva (T19.988). For studies of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, see Sørensen 2006, Des Jardins 2011, and Overbey 2016.

3 T19.987.479a29–b3.

4 T19.987.479b3–9.

5 T19.987.479b9–11; T19.988.483a27–29. This narrative framework

中文译文 | L08-P014-009

与库玛拉吉瓦（T19.988）。关于孔雀明王陀罗尼经的研究，可参考Sørensen 2006、Des Jardins 2011和Overbey 2016。3 T19.987.479a29–b3。4 T19.987.479b3–9。5 T19.987.479b9–11；T19.988.483a27–29。这一叙事框架

L08-P014-010 | 英文原文

appears in T19.987 and in the Kumārajīva translation (T19.988).

6 For example, a medicine bowl is one of the objects commonly

中文译文 | L08-P014-010

出现在 T19.987 以及 Kumārajīva 译本（T19.988）中。6 例如，药碗是常见的物品之一

L08-P014-011 | 英文原文

wielded by Bhaiṣajyaguru (the “Medicine Buddha”) in paintings and sculptures.

7 Pandey and Pandey 1988, pp. 9–10.

8 According to the ritual manual attributed to Amoghavajra, *Ritual*

中文译文 | L08-P014-011

由比萨耶古鲁（“药王佛”）在绘画与雕塑中展现。7 Pandey和Pandey，1988年，第9–10页。8 根据归于阿摩诃伐者里的仪式手册，仪式

L08-P014-012 | 英文原文

Commentary Spoken by the Buddha on the Altar of the Great Peacock Wisdom King’s Image, the four-armed Mahāmāyūrī is seated on a “golden peacock king” and holds peacock feathers in his second left hand; see T19.983A.440a4–10. Although Mahāmāyūrī is represented in the Metropolitan Museum banner as a standing deity with two arms, the association with the peacock and peacock feathers remains consistent.

9 T19.986.477c7–8.

10 Mahāmāyūrī was also associated with rainmaking rituals and

中文译文 | L08-P014-012

佛陀在孔雀明王圣像祭坛上所讲的法言，四位臂的孔雀明王坐于“金色孔雀王”之上，第二左手握着孔雀羽毛；参见T19.983A.440a4–10。尽管大都会博物馆的旗帜中将孔雀明王描绘为双臂站立的神像，但其与孔雀及孔雀羽毛的关联依然一致。9 T19.986.477c7–8。10 孔雀明王还与造雨仪式有关联。

L08-P014-013 | 英文原文

with Buddhist kingship. For images of Mahāmāyūrī in Dunhuang and Sichuan, see Wang Huimin 1996, Hashimura 2011, and M. Wang n.d. (forthcoming).

中文译文 | L08-P014-013

拥有佛教王权。关于敦煌与四川地区孔雀明王的图像，请参阅王慧民1996年、桥本2011年以及M. 王未刊论文（即将出版）。

L08-P014-014 | 英文原文

Yoojin Choi and Ricarda Brosch at the Victoria and

中文译文 | L08-P014-014

Yoojin Choi 与 Ricarda Brosch 在维多利亚博物馆

L08-P014-015 | 英文原文

Albert Museum, London; Mélodie Doumy and Sam van

中文译文 | L08-P014-015

伦敦阿尔伯特博物馆；Mélodie Doumy 和 Sam van

L08-P014-016 | 英文原文

Schaik at the British Library, London; and Allan Ding, Erika Forte, Amy Gansell, Ciro Lo Muzio, Megan Martinsen, Miki Morita, Wang Le, and Stuart Young.

中文译文 | L08-P014-016

英国图书馆的Schaik，伦敦；以及Allan Ding、Erika Forte、Amy Gansell、Ciro Lo Muzio、Megan Martinsen、Miki Morita、Wang Le和Stuart Young。

L08-P014-017 | 英文原文

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L08-P014-020 | 英文原文

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L08-P014-021 | 英文原文

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L08-P014-022 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-022

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L08-P014-023 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-023

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L08-P014-024 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-024

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L08-P014-025 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-025

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L08-P014-026 | 英文原文

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中文译文 | L08-P014-026

伦敦大学学院

L08-P014-027 | 英文原文

11 See Copp 2014.
12 Wang Le 2007, pp. 58–59. For hemp banners from Dunhuang,

中文译文 | L08-P014-027

11 参见 Copp 2014。12 Wang Le 2007，第58–59页。关于敦煌的麻布旗帜，请参阅……

L08-P014-028 | 英文原文

see R. Whitfield 1998.
13 On nonhuman agency in Buddhist rituals, see E. Wang 2011 and

中文译文 | L08-P014-028

参见 R. Whitfield 1998。13 关于佛教仪式中非人类主体的作用，可参考 E. Wang 2011 的研究。

L08-P014-029 | 英文原文

Kim 2017.
14 For a relevant passage from the *Sūtra of the Revered and*

中文译文 | L08-P014-029

Kim 2017. 14 关于《尊者经》中相关段落的参考。

L08-P014-030 | 英文原文

Victorious Dhāraṇī of the Buddha's Uṣṇīṣa, see Copp 2014, p. 146.
15 Based on her reinterpretation of the mural painting on the south

中文译文 | L08-P014-030

胜利的达兰。佛陀的"乌斯那"中的一节，参见 Copp 2014，第 146 页。15 基于她对南面壁画画的重新解读

L08-P014-031 | 英文原文

wall of Mogao Cave 217, Shimono Akiko argues that visual evidence exists for the practice of inscribing dharanis upon a cloth banner, and then hanging the banner from a tall structure; see Shimono 2004. For an important recent treatment of dharani pillars, see Liu 2008, in which the author argues for the multivalent associations of dharani pillars, stating that they functioned not only as vehicles for dharanis but also as stupas.

16 Pelliot chinois 2044, Département des Manuscrits,

中文译文 | L08-P014-031

莫高窟217洞的墙壁上，岛野明子认为存在证据表明，人们会在布制旗帜上书写陀罗尼，然后再将旗帜悬挂在高处结构上；参见岛野2004年的研究。关于陀罗尼柱的近期重要研究，可参考刘2008年的论文，作者提出了陀罗尼柱的多重功能，指出它们不仅作为陀罗尼的载体，还充当佛塔的作用。伯希和《中国文献》2044年，手稿部

L08-P014-032 | 英文原文

Bibliothèque Nationale de France, Paris (hereafter BnF), https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cc118669x. See Huang and Wu 1995, p. 159. We thank Allan Ding for this reference.

17 The double-sided Turfan banners are also discussed in Zaleski

中文译文 | L08-P014-032

法国国家图书馆，巴黎（以下简称BnF），https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cc118669x。参见Huang和Wu 1995，第159页。我们感谢Allan Ding提供的此资料。17 双面吐番旗帜也见于Zaleski的研究。

L08-P014-033 | 英文原文

2016, p. 83. We thank Mélodie Doumy for this reference. The Turfan banners are analyzed extensively in Bhattacharya-

中文译文 | L08-P014-033

2016, p. 83. 我们感谢Mélodie Doumy提供的此参考文献。这些吐尔番旗帜在Bhattacharya-中得到了详细分析——

L08-P014-034 | 英文原文

Haesner 2003.

18 The technique is discussed in Zaleski 2016, p. 85.

19 See Zhao 2007b, pp. 192–95.

20 Double-faced weave silk fabrics are known from the silk routes,

中文译文 | L08-P014-034

Haesner 2003. 18 该技术见于 Zaleski 2016，第85页。19 参见 Zhao 2007b，第192–95页。20 双面织法丝绸织物见于丝绸贸易路线中。

L08-P014-035 | 英文原文

resulting in different colors and even different patterns on each side of the fabric. For an example, see Zhao 2007a, pl. 124.

21 For the archaeological report, consult Stein 1921, vol. 2,

中文译文 | L08-P014-035

导致织物每侧呈现不同的颜色，甚至不同的图案。例如，可参考赵 2007a，图版 124。21 关于考古报告，请查阅斯坦因 1921，第 2 卷。

L08-P014-036 | 英文原文

pp. 1073–75.

22 There are two Tibetan inscriptions on the verso, one of which is

中文译文 | L08-P014-036

第1073–75页。22 背面有两条藏文铭文，其中一条是

L08-P014-037 | 英文原文

a rough transliteration of the deity's name (*ba ca ra pang ne*).

中文译文 | L08-P014-037

该神名的一个粗略转写（ba ca ra pang ne）。

L08-P014-038 | 英文原文

中文译文 | L08-P014-038

王文，惠特菲尔德 21

原PDF第15页（原刊第22页）

L08-P015-002 | 英文原文

For the inscription, see S. Whitfield and Williams 2004, p. 210, pl. 131.

23 For the British Museum paintings, see R. Whitfield 1982–85,

中文译文 | L08-P015-002

关于铭文，参见 S. Whitfield 和 Williams 2004 年著作第 210 页，图版 131。23 关于大英博物馆的绘画作品，参见 R. Whitfield 1982–85 年研究。

L08-P015-003 | 英文原文

vol. 1, pp. 333–34. For the National Museum of India paintings,

中文译文 | L08-P015-003

第1卷，第333–34页。关于印度国家博物馆的绘画作品，请参考……

L08-P015-004 | 英文原文

see Chandra and Sharma 2012, pp. 221–23.

24 Compare, for example, to the solid-colored textiles in "Banner

中文译文 | L08-P015-004

参见 Chandra 和 Sharma 2012，第 221–23 页。24 例如，可与"纯色纺织品"对比。

L08-P015-005 | 英文原文

with Avalokiteśvara," Tang dynasty (618–907) or Guiyijun period (848–1036), ink and color on silk (56.5 × 16.5 cm), British Museum, 1919,0101,0.124 (Ch.00113). Because of the striped textiles of the garments and the ill-defined musculature of the bodhisattvas, which are also present in mural paintings from Balawaste, located in the eastern part of the Khotan oasis in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region, archaeologist Gerd Gropp has argued that they are Khotanese in origin; see Gropp 1974, p. 94.

25 In the premodern connoisseurial literature, Khotanese

中文译文 | L08-P015-005

"与阿瓦洛克提舍瓦罗" —— 唐 Dynasty（618–907年）或贵久军时期（848–1036年），丝织品上的墨色与色彩作品（56.5 × 16.5 厘米），大英博物馆，1919,0101,0.124（Ch.00113）。由于服饰中的条纹织物以及不清晰的菩萨肌肉轮廓，这些特征也出现在位于现今新疆维吾尔自治区霍坦绿洲东部的巴拉瓦斯特壁画中。考古学家格德·格罗普认为这些作品源自霍坦地区；参见格罗普 1974年，第94页。25 在近代前的鉴赏文集中，这些作品属于霍坦风格。

L08-P015-006 | 英文原文

painters such as Yuchi (Weichi) Yiseng (act. second half of the 7th century) were known for their technique of chiaroscuro. For a synthesis of the relevant primary sources on Khotanese painters, see Nagahiro 1955, p. 73.

26 Khotanese painting is said to reflect South Asian, Chinese,

中文译文 | L08-P015-006

像于奇（Weichi）伊生（7世纪下半叶活动）这样的画家，以其明暗对比技法闻名。关于和田画家的相关原始资料汇总，参见Nagahiro 1955，第73页。据说和田绘画反映了南亚和中国的风格。

L08-P015-007 | 英文原文

Sasanian, and Sogdian elements. See Williams 1973, pp. 110–11. It is worth noting that the unusual standing position of Mahāmāyūrī, who is usually shown seated on a peacock mount, echoes sixth-century Mahāmāyūrī sculptures at the Ellora Caves in western India; see Malandra 1993, pp. 96–97. Geri Malandra indicates that Mahāmāyūrī is paired with Bhṛkuṭī in Ellora Caves 6 and 8, which is unique to the site, and there are no textual precedents for Mahāmāyūrī's appearance. Nevertheless, the standing posture is very common in representations of deities in painted banners, so this does not imply a direct connection but rather points toward two distinct treatments of the standing Mahāmāyūrī.

27 This way of writing Khotanese inscriptions on paintings is more

中文译文 | L08-P015-007

萨珊与索格德元素。参见Williams 1973，第110–11页。值得注意的是，孔雀明王通常被描绘为坐在孔雀背上的姿态，这一不寻常的站立姿势与印度西部埃洛拉洞穴中六世纪时期的孔雀明王雕塑相似；参见Malandra 1993，第96–97页。Geri Malandra指出，在埃洛拉洞穴6号和8号中，孔雀明王与Bhr. kut.ī一同出现，这是该遗址所特有的现象，且缺乏关于孔雀明王出现的文本记载。不过，站立姿态在绘画旗帜中的神像表现中非常常见，因此这并不意味着直接关联，而是表明对站立状态的孔雀明王有两种不同的处理方式。27 这种在绘画上书写霍塔尼文铭文的风格更为常见。

L08-P015-008 | 英文原文

common than when the author writes the inscriptions vertically along the vertical direction of the painting, which is found in Pelliot tibétian 2222, BnF, https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr /ark:/12148/cc123610h. See Filigenzi and Maggi 2008.

28 This name is not otherwise attested in Khotanese texts.

29 For a similar inscription that begins with the date, see Stein

中文译文 | L08-P015-008

比作者将铭文垂直书写在画作垂直方向上时要常见得多，这一情况见于伯希和的《西藏铭文》2222号，BNF，https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr /ark:/12148/cc123610h。参见Filigenzi和Maggi 2008. 28 该名称在霍坦文本中未见其他记载。29 关于以日期开头的类似铭文，请参阅斯坦因的研究。

L08-P015-009 | 英文原文

1921, vol. 2, p. 1012.

30 Emmerick 1968, p. 145.

31 See examples in Bailey 1979, pp. 448–49.

32 Skjærvø 2002, p. 299.

33 Olivelle 2013, p. 40. This is the title of the famous minister Yaśa

中文译文 | L08-P015-009

1921年，第2卷，第1012页。30 埃默里克，1968年，第145页。31 参见贝利，1979年，第448–49页中的例子。32 斯凯尔沃，2002年，第299页。33 奥利维勒，2013年，第40页。这是著名部长亚萨的标题

L08-P015-010 | 英文原文

for King Aśoka in the Khotanese legend of Aśoka. See Bailey 1951a, pp. 40–44.

34 Wen 2008, p. 124.

35 For this dating of the Khotanese documents, see Zhang and

中文译文 | L08-P015-010

在霍坦地区的阿育王传说中，关于阿育王。参见 Bailey 1951a，第40–44页。34 Wen 2008，第124页。35 关于霍坦文献的年代测定，参见张与

L08-P015-011 | 英文原文

Rong 2008, pp. 70–105.

36 Translation adapted from Dresden 1955, p. 422.

37 For this history, see Chavannes 1942, Maeda 1964, Beckwith

中文译文 | L08-P015-011

Rong 2008, pp. 70–105. 36 翻译改编自 Dresden 1955, p. 422. 37 关于这一历史，参见 Chavannes 1942, Maeda 1964, Beckwith

L08-P015-012 | 英文原文

1993, and Drompp 2005.
38 Rong and Zhu 2013, p. 110.
39 Ibid., pp. 151–70.
40 This is particularly true in Cave 98, which contains the largest

中文译文 | L08-P015-012

1993年，以及Drompp 2005。38 Rong和Zhu 2013，第110页。39 同上，第151–70页。40 这在Cave 98中尤为明显，该文件包含最多的内容。

L08-P015-013 | 英文原文

donor image in all the Dunhuang caves: the Khotanese king.
41 Kumamoto 1982. These envoys also left records in Chinese and

中文译文 | L08-P015-013

所有敦煌洞窟中的捐赠者形象：和田王。41 Kumamoto 1982。这些使者还留下了中文记录。

L08-P015-014 | 英文原文

Tibetan in official letters, royal edicts, and notebooks. See

中文译文 | L08-P015-014

西藏的官方文书、皇家诏书及笔记中也有相关记载。参见

L08-P015-015 | 英文原文

Zhang and Rong 2008, pp. 1–14. For the Tibetan documents in

中文译文 | L08-P015-015

张与荣 2008，第1–14页。关于藏文文献，请参见荣与朱 2013，第375–412页。

L08-P015-016 | 英文原文

particular, see Rong and Zhu 2013, pp. 375–412.

中文译文 | L08-P015-016

特别是，参见 Rong 和 Zhu 2013, 第 375–412 页。

L08-P015-017 | 英文原文

42 For example, for the Dunhuang government's provision of food to

中文译文 | L08-P015-017

42 例如，关于敦煌政府对……的供给情况

L08-P015-018 | 英文原文

Khotanese envoys, see the British Library manuscript Stein 1366 in Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 3, p. 285; for a Dunhuang monastery's provision of food to Khotanese envoys, see Pelliot chinois 2642, BnF (https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/btv1b8303278d/f1.image); Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 3, p. 209.
43 In a tantalizing piece of evidence, of the forty-six people living

中文译文 | L08-P015-018

霍坦的使节，参见英国图书馆写本斯坦因 1366，载于唐与卢 1986–90，第3卷，第285页；关于敦煌寺院为霍坦使节提供食物的情况，参见伯希和 chinois 2642，BnF（https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/btv1b8303278d /f1.image）；唐与卢 1986–90，第3卷，第209页。43 一个令人兴奋的证据表明，在四十六人中

L08-P015-019 | 英文原文

in Suo Liuzhu Lane in Dunhuang who were late in their payment of taxation in firewood, twelve were recorded as having traveled to Khotan. See the Institute of Oriental Manuscripts, Russian Academy of Sciences, Saint Petersburg, Дx2149, in Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 2, p. 446.

44 Kumamoto 1996.

45 IOL Khot S. 21, British Library, in Skjærvø 2002, pp. 522–24.

46 Pelliot chinois 2958, BnF (https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148

中文译文 | L08-P015-019

在敦煌苏洛珠巷，有十二人因木材税缴纳延迟而被记录为前往和田的写本。参见圣彼得堡俄罗斯科学院东方写本研究所，Дx2149，载于唐与陆 1986–90，第2卷，第446页；熊本 1996；IOL Khot S. 21，英国图书馆，载于Skjærvø 2002，第522–24页；伯希和中文2958，法国国家图书馆（https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148）

L08-P015-020 | 英文原文

/btv1b8302289w.r-Pelliot%20chinois%202958?rk-21459;2); Bailey 1967, pp. 96–97.

47 Bailey 1951b, p. 44.

48 Pelliot chinois 2812, BnF (https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr

中文译文 | L08-P015-020

/btv1b8302289w.r-Pelliot%20chinois%202958?rk-21459;2); Bailey 1967, pp. 96–97. 47 Bailey 1951b, p. 44. 48 伯希和 2812, BnF (https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr

L08-P015-021 | 英文原文

/ark:/12148/cc119447n). The Chinese text reads: *She yilei zhi zhencai. Zhao danqing zhi qiaojiang. Hui rulai zhi puxi, tu pusa zhi zhenyi*. See Zhang and Rong 2008, pp. 91–92.

49 Chen 2014, pp. 244–47.

50 Institute of Oriental Manuscripts, Russian Academy of Sciences,

中文译文 | L08-P015-021

/ark:/12148/cc119447n)。中文文本内容为：她伊莱智真才。赵丹清智桥江。辉柔来智普西，涂普萨智真益。参见张与荣 2008年，第91–92页。49 陈 2014年，第244–47页。50 俄罗斯科学院东方写本研究所

L08-P015-022 | 英文原文

Saint Petersburg, Дx.2148(2)+, Дx.6069(1). See Zhang and Rong 2008, p. 293.

51 Rong 1999–2000.

52 For these inscribed paintings, see Stein 1921, vol. 2, p. 1012,

中文译文 | L08-P015-022

圣彼得堡，Дx.2148(2)+，Дx.6069(1)。参见张与荣 2008，第293页。51 荣 1999–2000。52 关于这些刻有文字的画作，请参阅斯坦因 1921，第2卷，第1012页。

L08-P015-023 | 英文原文

Emmerick and Dudbridge 1978, Emmerick 1984, and Filigenzi and Maggi 2008.

53 Sale, Christie's, London, May 15, 2007, lot 171; https://www

中文译文 | L08-P015-023

Emmerick 和 Dudbridge 1978年，Emmerick 1984年，以及 Filigenzi 和 Maggi 2008年。53 伦敦佳士得拍卖行，2007年5月15日，拍品编号171；https://www

L08-P015-024 | 英文原文

.christies.com/lotfinder/lot/an-extremely-rare-and-important-tang-dynasty-4905708-details.aspx?from=salesummary

中文译文 | L08-P015-024

christies.com/lotfinder/lot/an-extremely-rare-and-important-tang-dynasty-4905708-details.aspx?from=salesummary

L08-P015-025 | 英文原文

&intObjectID=4905708. See also S. Whitfield 2017.

54 Although forgeries were produced later of such material, the frag-

中文译文 | L08-P015-025

&intObjectID=4905708. 参见 R. Whitfield 2017 的论文。54 尽管后来也制作过此类材料的仿制品，但此作品的完整性……

L08-P015-026 | 英文原文

mentary state of this piece, its distinctive subject matter, and its sophistication all strongly suggest that this is not a forgery. See Cohen 2002, pp. 24–30, and R. Whitfield 2002 for discussions.

55 At least this is the impression from reading Stein on Andrews,

中文译文 | L08-P015-026

这部作品的风格、独特的主题以及复杂的结构都强烈表明这不是赝品。有关讨论可参考 Cohen 2002 页 24–30 以及 R. Whitfield 2002 的著作。至少从阅读斯坦因关于安德鲁斯的著作中得到的就是这种印象。

L08-P015-027 | 英文原文

along with Andrews's dissatisfaction with most of his positions, although Andrews left a reasonable legacy.

56 The British Museum Act of 1767 allowed the Trustees "to

中文译文 | L08-P015-027

加上安德鲁斯对大多数职位的不满意，尽管安德鲁斯留下了合理的遗产。56 1767年的大英博物馆法案允许理事们"……

L08-P015-028 | 英文原文

exchange, sell or dispose of any Duplicates of Printed Books. . . ." This was most probably behind the decision to exchange a

中文译文 | L08-P015-028

交换、出售或处置任何复制印刷书籍的副本……这很可能是决定交换该物品的原因。

L08-P015-029 | 英文原文

Dunhuang blockprint from the Stein Dunhuang collection,
1919,0101,0.241 (Ch.00185.a), with an item from the Royal

中文译文 | L08-P015-029

斯坦因所藏敦煌拓印品，1919,0101,0.241 (Ch.00185.a)，以及一份来自皇家收藏的藏品

L08-P015-030 | 英文原文

Ontario Museum, Toronto, in 1924 (927.24).
57 Stein 1921, vol. 2, pp. 801ff.
58 In the expedition report, Stein says, “I may note here that when

中文译文 | L08-P015-030

安大略博物馆，多伦多，1924年（927.24）。57 斯坦因1921年，第2卷，第801页及以后。58 在考察报告中，斯坦因说：“我在此指出，当……

L08-P015-031 | 英文原文

the marking with serial numbers was made at the British
Museum . . .” (1921, vol. 2, p. 814n2).
59 While it seems that most of the paintings were listed at this time,

中文译文 | L08-P015-031

“带有序列号的标记是在大英博物馆进行的……”（1921年，第2卷，第814n2页）。59 虽然看起来当时大多数画作都被列入了清单，

L08-P015-032 | 英文原文

some of the lists for the paintings have not been found.
60 It is regrettable that the site mark, when given, was not always

中文译文 | L08-P015-032

但部分画作的清单却至今未找到。60 遗憾的是，当这些地点标记被给出时，并不总是

L08-P015-033 | 英文原文

recorded in catalogues and databases of the material.
International Dunhuang Project (IDP) started recording this
information in its database at the British Library, but the work is
still to be completed. However, from the work done, we can see
that the site mark carries important information about the origi-
nal storage of the manuscripts in the bundles in the cave, as
suggested previously by Rong Xinjiang and others. These

中文译文 | L08-P015-033

被记录在相关目录和数据库中。国际敦煌项目（IDP）开始在英国图书馆的数据库中录入这些信息，但工作尚未完成。然而，从已进行的工作中可以看出，遗址标记包含了关于写本在洞穴中的原始存储方式的重要信息，正如荣新江等人之前所提出的那样。

原PDF第16页（原刊第23页）

L08-P016-001 | 英文原文

results will be published in a forthcoming article by Paschalia Terzi and Susan Whitfield.

61 Stein to Percy Allen, July 17, 1910, “Papers of Sir Marc Aurel

中文译文 | L08-P016-001

结果将发表在帕斯查利亚·特尔齐和苏珊·惠特菲尔德即将发表的论文中。1910年7月17日，斯坦因致珀西·艾伦的信，第61号，“马克·奥勒尔爵士的文献”

L08-P016-002 | 英文原文

Stein (1862–1943),” MSS Stein 7/81–2, Bodleian Library, Oxford. Note that the material was not yet acquisitioned into any collection.

62 Stein 1921, vol. 3, pp. 1392–1428, followed by a short essay by

中文译文 | L08-P016-002

斯坦因（1862–1943），《MSS Stein 7/81–2》，牛津博德利图书馆。注意该资料当时尚未被纳入任何收藏中。62 斯坦因 1921年，第3卷，第1392–1428页，随后有一篇短篇论文。

L08-P016-003 | 英文原文

Binyon (ibid., pp. 1428–31).

63 An exception was made for the Kharoṣṭhī tablets because many

中文译文 | L08-P016-003

Binyon (同前引文，第1428–31页)。63 关于Kharos.t.hī碑版则被特批保留，因为许多

L08-P016-004 | 英文原文

were due for India but still being catalogued. Permission was made for the Kharoṣṭhī tablets to be kept unpacked at the British Museum so that the cataloguing could be completed. The list of the material removed and details of its move on

中文译文 | L08-P016-004

原定分往印度，却仍在编目中。因此，佉卢文简牍获准暂不打包，留在大英博物馆，以便完成编目。有关移出材料的清单，以及其搬运详情，见

L08-P016-005 | 英文原文

February 12, 1919, are given in “Papers Relating to Sir Marc Aurel Stein,” CE32/23 and CE32/24, Central Archives, British Museum, London.

64 Hence the prefix to their museum reg. number, 1919.

65 Now in the National Museum, New Delhi.

66 For an example of the state of much of the material before con-

中文译文 | L08-P016-005

1919年2月12日的相关记载见于“与奥雷尔·斯坦因爵士相关的文件”，载于大英博物馆伦敦中央档案馆的CE32/23和CE32/24档案。64 因此，其博物馆登记号以1919开头。65 现藏于新德里国家博物馆。66 作为许多资料在整理前状况的一个例子……

L08-P016-006 | 英文原文

servation and the time-consuming work in flattening folded material, see the British Library's time-lapse video *Tangut Fragments Conserved by Vania Assis*, filmed by E. Hunter and C. Norman: https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=FIP3jMfZkY4.

67 They included manuscript scrolls and clay relief plaques

中文译文 | L08-P016-006

服务以及将折叠材料展平所需的耗时工作，可查看英国图书馆的延时视频《Tangut Fragments Conserved by Vania Assis》，由E. Hunter和C. Norman拍摄：https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=FIP3jMfZkY4。他们包含了写本卷子以及泥质浮雕牌匾。

L08-P016-007 | 英文原文

acquired directly from Wang Yuanlu at the caves, as well as other rolls offered by sellers to Stein in the town and in other places en route. See Stein 1928, pp. 354–62, for a review of this material, which he notes was in good condition—indeed, the Dunhuang manuscripts scholar Fujieda Akira suggested much of it consisted of forgeries (Fujieda 2002). But, more pertinent to the discussion here, it was not in a form that suggests a painting on silk could be hidden among it.

68 It is, of course, also possible that the banner was discovered and

中文译文 | L08-P016-007

直接从王圆箓在洞窟中获得的，以及卖家在城镇及沿途其他地方提供给斯坦因的其它卷。关于这些材料的回顾，可参考斯坦因1928年著作第354–62页，他指出这些写本状况良好——事实上，敦煌写本学者藤井田明就认为其中大部分是伪造品（藤井田2002）。但与本文讨论更相关的是，这些写本的形式并不表明其中可能藏有丝绸画。当然，也有可能是那面旗帜被发现了……

L08-P016-008 | 英文原文

unfolded by his family after Andrews's death in 1957. Apart from small bequests, his estate passed to his nephew, Richard Cuthbert Andrews, and Richard's wife, Barbara.

中文译文 | L08-P016-008

1957年安德鲁斯去世后，其遗产由家族继承。除了少量遗产遗赠外，他的财产便传给了侄子理查德·库斯伯特·安德鲁斯以及理查德的妻子芭芭拉。

L08-P016-009 | 英文原文

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ABBREVIATION

T Taishō Tripiṭaka texts (volume and number)

中文译文 | L08-P016-010

缩写 T 大正三藏经文（卷号与编号）

L08-P016-011 | 英文原文

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T19.982

中文译文 | L08-P016-011

原始资料 T19.982

L08-P016-012 | 英文原文

Amoghavajra (Bukong Jin'gang 不空金剛, 705–774), trans. *Fomu da kongque mingwang jin*g 佛母大孔雀明王經 (Sūtra on the Buddha's Mother, the Great Peacock Wisdom King).

中文译文 | L08-P016-012

阿摩诃伐吒罗（不空金剛，705–774），译作佛母大孔雀明王經（关于佛陀母亲、大孔雀智慧王的经文）。

L08-P016-013 | 英文原文

Amoghavajra (Bukong Jin'gang 不空金剛, 705–774), attr. to *Foshuo da kongque mingwang huaxiang tanchang yigui* 佛說大孔雀明王畫像壇場儀軌 (The Ritual Commentary Spoken by the Buddha

中文译文 | L08-P016-013

阿摩诃伐吒罗（不空金剛，705–774），注疏于佛说大孔雀明王畫像壇場儀軌（由佛陀所說的關於大孔雀明王畫像壇場的儀式解釋）。

L08-P016-014 | 英文原文

on the Altar of the Great Peacock Wisdom King's Image).

中文译文 | L08-P016-014

關於大孔雀智慧王形象祭壇的經文）。

L08-P016-015 | 英文原文

Saṇghabhara (460–524), trans. *Kongquewang zhou jing* 孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra of the Peacock King Mantra).

中文译文 | L08-P016-015

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中文译文 | L08-P016-016

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斯里米特拉（帛尸梨蜜多羅，卒于四世纪中期），译作《大金色孔雀王咒经》

L08-P016-019 | 英文原文

Śrīmitra (Boshilimiduoluo 帛尸梨蜜多羅, d. mid-fourth century), trans. *Foshuo da jinse kongquewang zhou jing* 佛說大金色孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra Preached by the Buddha on the Great Golden Peacock King Mantra).

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Buddhism and Silk: Reassessing a Painted Banner from Medieval Central Asia in The Met

MICHELLE C. WANG, XIN WEN, SUSAN WHITFIELD

Among the Silk Road artifacts in The Metropolitan Museum of Art is a painted silk banner that depicts a Buddhist deity standing beneath a canopy (fig. 1). The relatively small size of the banner belies its significance as an object of transcultural exchange between the Silk Road oasis city of Dunhuang, located in present-day Gansu Province in northwestern China, and the neighboring kingdom of Khotan, along the southern branch of the silk routes in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region. Furthermore, the iconography and materiality of the banner demonstrate the intertwined resonance of Buddhism and silk and offer tantalizing insights into cross-cultural practices of artistic production and display.

Aided by recent conservation work by the Metropolitan Museum's Department of Textile Conservation, this



fig. 1 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (recto). Guiyijun period (848–1036). Ink and color on silk, 22½ × 11 in. (57 × 28 cm). The Metropolitan Museum of Art, Purchase, The Vincent Astor Foundation Gift, 2007 (2007.294a, b)

article examines the painted banner from multiple perspectives, including religious, geographic, and its provenance. First, the banner is placed in its religious and cultural context through comparisons made to silk banners recovered from the city of Dunhuang. Second, a careful examination of a hitherto undiscovered inscription points to the close ties cultivated between Dunhuang and Khotan, which played a critical role in the transmission of Buddhist material culture (see fig. 10). The third and last part of the article reconstructs the probable route taken by the banner from Dunhuang to London during the early twentieth century, and the roles played by the archaeologist Marc Aurel Stein (1862–1943) and his assistant Frederick Henry Andrews (1866–1957). In doing so, the continued transcultural significance of the banner into the present day is foregrounded.

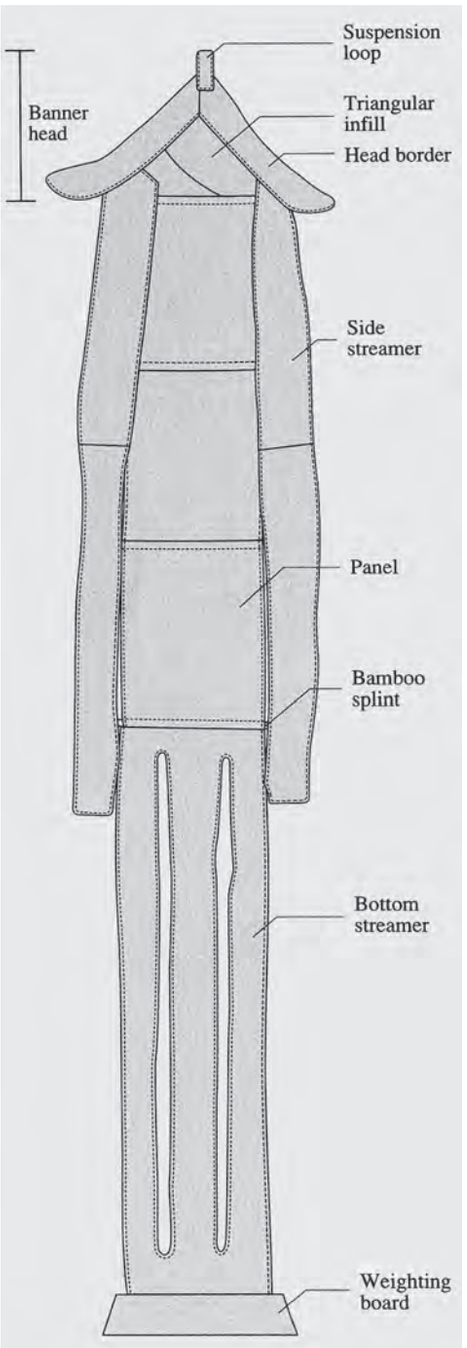


fig. 2 Diagram of a banner, after Wang Le 2007, p. 58, fig. 23

MAHĀMĀYŪRĪ: THE GREAT PEACOCK WISDOM KING

Standing atop a lotus pedestal, the central motif of the banner is a deity exquisitely bejeweled and sumptuously attired in colorful textiles. A flowered canopy is adorned with tassels that fall behind an arched halo, and this floral motif is echoed by small blossoms that descend from the sky and appear as if suspended in midair, lending an imagined fragrance to the scene. Bearing implements of religious significance in both hands—a single peacock feather in the right and a golden bowl in the left— together they identify the deity as Mahāmāyūrī, the Great Peacock Wisdom King. In the East Asian Buddhist canon, Mahāmāyūrī appears in the six translations of the *Sutra of the Great Golden Peacock King Mantra* completed between the fourth and eighth centuries.[1] Several of these texts were made by monk-translators from oasis kingdoms in the Tarim Basin, indicating the popularity of this deity along the silk routes.[2] A mantra or dharani (the terms are often used interchangeably) refers to a verbal incantation recited in order to harness the titular deity's efficacious powers.

In the framing narrative of this particular sutra, the protagonist is the young monk Svāti, who resides in the Jetavana Grove, a monastery located in Śrāvastī, India, where Śākyamuni Buddha spent the rainy seasons during the last twenty-five years of his life. One day, while gathering firewood for the monks' bath, Svāti is bitten on the right foot by a poisonous black snake.[3] Witnessing Svāti's pain and suffering, the Buddha's disciple Ānanda pleads with the Buddha for help.[4] The Buddha tells Ānanda that he should recite the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, which has the power to save Svāti's life by neutralizing the snake's poison.[5] For this reason, Mahāmāyūrī became widely known as the deity who protects against snakebites and is associated with medicine. This information is conveyed with Mahāmāyūrī holding a golden bowl that represents a bowl of medicine.[6] The medical properties of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani likely resulted in the sutra's incorporation into the Bower Manuscript, which dates to the Gupta period (ca. 320–550) in India. The manuscript was recovered in 1890 by the British Army officer Hamilton Bower from the underground crypt of a stupa



fig. 3 Bodhisattva Guide of Souls. Tang dynasty (618–907), second half of the 9th century. Ink and color on silk, 31 11/16 × 21 3/16 in. (80.5 × 53.8 cm) (without mounting). British Museum, London (1919,0101,0.47) (Ch. lvii.002)



fig. 4 Banner Head with Seated Buddha from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (fig. 1)

(Buddhist reliquary mound) in Kumtura, a Buddhist cave site located in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region.[7] Composed in Sanskrit and written in the Brāhmī script on birch bark, the Bower Manuscript contained several additional Indian medical treatises.

The peacock feather held by Mahāmāyūrī refers to the deity's elevated status and the creature with which it is closely associated. According to textual sources, if the deity holds peacock feathers in one hand and is in a seated position, a golden peacock king is its vehicle.[8] This relates to another framing narrative of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra that concerns a golden peacock king (a bird), who daily recites the sutra for self-protection, once in the morning and again at dusk.[9]

From the above examples, Mahāmāyūrī was closely associated with healing and protection, which were properties common to dharanis and mantras.[10] In medieval China, dharanis and mantras were not only recited, as prescribed by the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, but also copied and worn on the body as talismans so that their efficacy could be transferred via direct contact with the devotee.[11] However, painted banners with dharanis and mantras, which were placed on public display, had very different material properties from smaller talismans.

MATERIALITY OF BANNERS FROM THE SILK ROUTES

Banners from the silk routes are distinct from the more familiar hanging scrolls of East Asia. Unlike the conventional hanging scroll, painted banners were originally composed of multiple parts: the triangular banner head, which consisted of decorative silk or a painting typically depicting a seated Buddha; the rectangular body, on which the painting was executed (this could also consist of one or multiple pieces of fabric stitched together); side streamers, attached to the wide border of the banner head; and bottom streamers, attached to a wooden weighting board. A loop at the top of the banner head enabled it to be hung from poles or to be suspended from temple beams or stupas. The Mahāmāyūrī banner is preserved in two pieces, which include the triangular banner head painted with an image of a seated Buddha (fig. 4) and the rectangular painting bearing the Mahāmāyūrī motif (see fig. 1). The two pieces are no longer attached (fig. 5), and the border of the banner head and the streamers are also missing. Nevertheless, the similarity in style, painting technique, and color palette between the present painting and the banner head suggest they may have originated from the same object.

Silk Road painted banners were made from a variety of materials, although the vast majority of banners





fig. 5 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī, including Banner Head with Seated Buddha (recto) (see fig. 1)

fig. 6 Mural painting fragment from the Balawaste Buddha, showing banners hanging from a stupa. 7th–8th century. Painted on plaster, 18⅛ × 13¾ in. (46 × 35 cm). British Museum, London (1925,0619,0.31)

fig. 7 Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (verso; see fig. 1 for recto)



from Dunhuang were made on a silk support. In the early twentieth century, Stein collected 230 banners from the Mogao Caves at Dunhuang: 179 were made of silk, 42 from hemp, and 9 from paper.[12] The lightweight and translucent quality of plain silk, in turn, was directly connected to the production of painted banners and their display (see the silk banner in fig. 3). As previously mentioned, the efficacy of dharanis and mantras was marshaled not only through oral recitation but also by wearing talismans bearing the syllables of the dharani or mantra. Yet there were other ways in which the efficacy was transmitted, such as the nonhuman agency of shadows and wind.[13] In medieval China, dharanis and mantras were often carved on the sides of stone pillars, and it was believed that the shadows cast by a pillar or the dust lifted from its surface by wind had the capability to transfer the dharani's benefits onto devotees.[14]

There was a productive conflation of Buddhist texts with regard to the lexicon of stone pillars and banners. Both objects were known in premodern China by the same word, *chuang*.[15] It is therefore intriguing that dharani pillars and painted banners were similarly constructed according to a tripartite structure of head, body, and base (or bottom streamers). But whereas stone pillars were static, silk banners, by the lightweight and flexible nature of the material, could sway in the wind (fig. 6). This implies that unless hung directly against a wall or pillar, banners could be viewed from both sides.

Dunhuang manuscripts contain references to the visual impact of vibrantly colored silk banners that swayed in the wind. For example, a passage in the manuscript Pelliot chinois 2044, in the Bibliothèque Nationale de France, describes the

> skillful division of colors in woven silk and artful stitches in vermilion; hanging from a tall pole against the clear blue sky, the end of a rainbow flutters and appears in the sky; the wind [blows] it distantly one revolution and in one hundred places, disasters dissipate; its shadow appears to one thousand households and ten thousand kinds of fortune accumulate. . . .[16]

When the Mahāmāyūrī banner was acquired by the Museum in 2007, it was mounted onto a textile-covered panel, allowing only one side to be seen. In spring 2019, the banner underwent detailed conservation by Minsun Hwang and her team in the Department of Textile Conservation. The banner was removed from the panel (fig. 7), revealing that the front (recto) and back (verso) of the painting were both painted with the same motif





fig. 8a Banner with Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa (this side showing Dhṛtarāṣṭra). Toyuk, 9th century. Ramie, 18½ × 11 in. (47 × 28 cm). Museum für Asiatische Kunst, Berlin (III 7305)

fig. 8b Banner with Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa (this side showing Virūpākṣa)



fig. 9 Black and red ink outlines visible in the hands and arms of Mahāmāyūrī from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (recto) (see fig. 1)

of Mahāmāyūrī, albeit with minor variations. In addition, the verso of the painting bore an inscription written in black ink that was faintly visible on the recto.

Extant double-sided banners from the silk routes were made from hemp, ramie, or silk, but the double-sided imagery was produced in different ways. Because hemp and ramie offer a more opaque painting ground than silk, the images on the verso and recto were drawn or transferred separately, either by freehand or through the use of stencils. By comparison, paintings from the Turfan Collection in the former Museum für Indische Kunst (now Museum für Asiatische Kunst), Berlin, show variations of double-sided painting, including some paintings with the same image painted on both sides of a banner. Another ramie banner in the collection displays different though related motifs on each side: Dhṛtarāṣṭra and Virūpākṣa, the guardian kings of the East and West, respectively (fig. 8a, b). They are

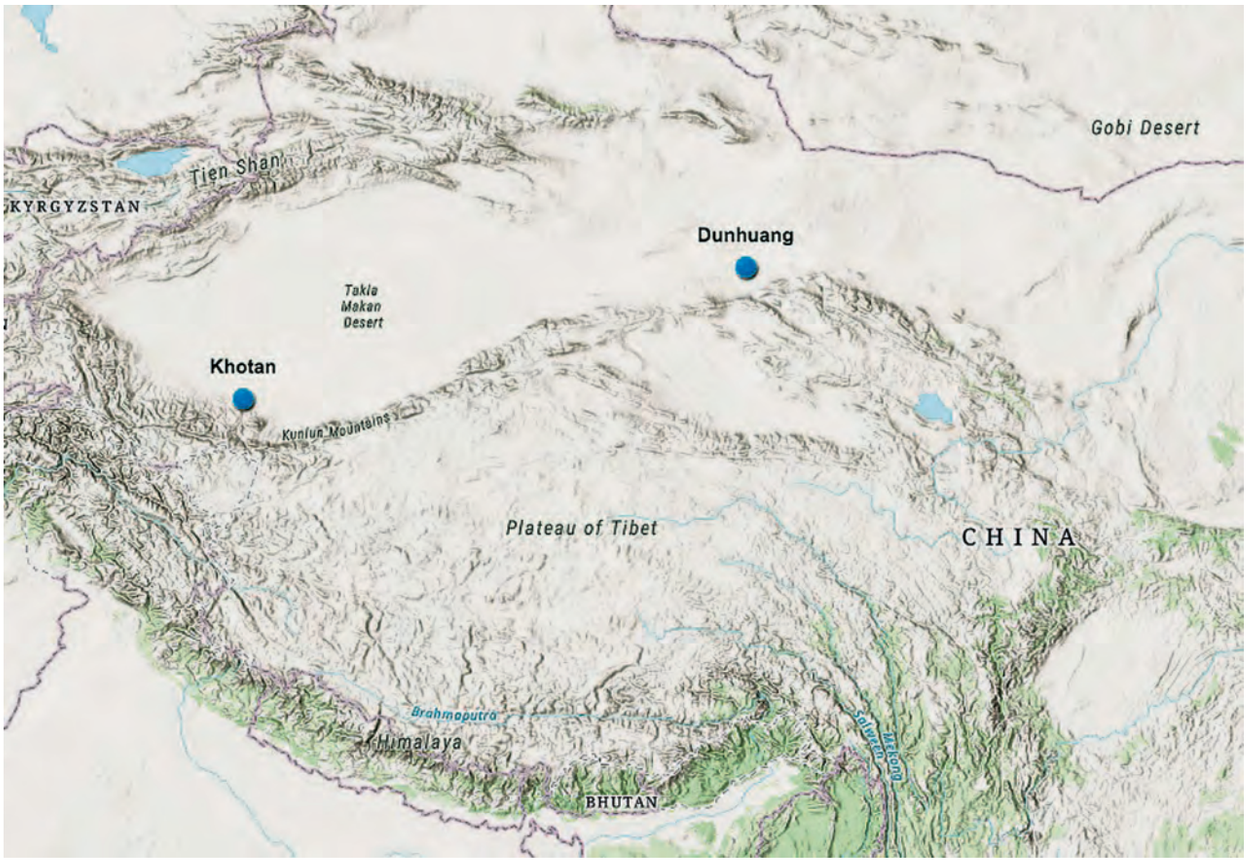


fig. 10 Map showing locations of Khotan and Dunhuang

identified by their attributes of a bow and arrow (Dhṛtarāṣṭra) and a flaming jewel (Virūpākṣa).[17]

In contrast, the translucent quality of silk enabled underpaintings made on one side to be visible from the other side. In the case of the Mahāmāyūrī banner, black underpainting appears only on one side, therefore designating that side as the recto (see fig. 1). This effect is most visible in areas of bare skin and particularly in the deity's arms and upturned hand (fig. 9).[18] From visual observation, the contours of the underpainting were carefully filled in with colored pigments, after which a deep red outline was painted over the black underpainting, partially obscuring it. The other side of the painting bears no trace of black underpainting, only red outlines, which demonstrates that the silk was sufficiently sheer so as to render the black outlines visible on the verso (see fig. 7). On the verso, the same painting process was followed with the colored pigments applied first, then the tracing of red outlines. The inscription referred to earlier was written on the verso. With the exception of minor motifs, such as the rendering of flowers and the treatment of drapery around the deity's waist, the two paintings of Mahāmāyūrī are mirror images of each other.

Another noteworthy element in this painting is the unusual attention paid to textiles. The deity is clad in an Indian-style skirtlike garment called a dhoti, which is composed of a pale orange textile decorated with a regular pattern of blue and red quatrefoil-shaped flowers. This resembles clamp-resist dyed silk textiles recovered from oasis cities of the Silk Road. The clamp-resist dyeing technique resulted in symmetrical patterns of the sort seen in the dhoti worn by Mahāmāyūrī. Wooden blocks carved with symmetrical patterns created through a juxtaposition of convex and concave shapes were affixed on either side of a piece of cloth or a folded piece of cloth and clamped together, after which the cloth was placed in dye. The convex areas resisted dye, while the concave areas created space for the dye to soak through the cloth. Multicolored patterns could be produced through a combination of repeated clamp-resist dyeing and hand painting by brush.[19]

The garment is fastened around the waist with green, red, and purple cloth, and a double-faced blue-and-red scarf billows artfully along the length of the deity's body.[20] As important Silk Road commodities, the representation of silk textiles in this painted banner merits attention. The detailed representation is also evident in a separate group of painted banners, which attests to the vibrancy of banner-painting traditions along the southern silk route, and in particular, the artistic impact of the Buddhist kingdom of Khotan (fig. 10).



fig. 11 Banner with Vajrapāṇi. From Dunhuang, Guiyijun period (848–1036). Ink and color on silk, 21⅝ × 5¾ in. (55 × 14.5 cm). British Museum, London (1919,0101,0.103) (Ch.lvi.002)





fig. 12 Mural-painting fragment showing deity holding a peacock feather. Probably from Khotan, dates uncertain. Painting on plaster, 11 × 10 in. (28 × 25.5 cm). British Museum, London (1925,0619,0.27)

fig. 13 Plate with a hunting scene from the tale of Bahram Gur (r. 420–438) and Azadeh. Sasanian, ca. 5th century. Silver with mercury gilding, H. 1⅝ in. (4.1 cm); Diam. 7⅞ in. (20.1 cm). The Metropolitan Museum of Art, Purchase, Lila Acheson Wallace Gift, 1994 (1994.402)

SILK BANNERS ON THE SILK ROAD

Of the silk banners recovered by Stein from Mogao Cave 17, a group of ten that were gathered during his second expedition serves as a particularly instructive point of comparison for the Mahāmāyūrī banner. The group is now divided between the British Museum in London (three paintings) and the National Museum of India in New Delhi (seven paintings).[21] The works display stylistic traits of Khotanese and Himalayan artistic traditions, the latter of which reflects on the Tibetan occupation of Khotan between the seventh and ninth centuries. Like the Mahāmāyūrī banner, one from this latter group is inscribed on the verso. The Tibetan inscription identifies the deity represented on the recto as Vajrapāṇi (fig. 11).[22] The writing of inscriptions on the verso rather than on the recto is more commonly seen among Himalayan *thangka*s, portable Buddhist paintings that are usually painted on a heavier canvas ground. The Mahāmāyūrī banner and the ten banners from the British Museum and National Museum of India do not have cartouches, further distinguishing them from banners that were inscribed in Chinese.

The paintings in this group reveal a number of consistencies, despite subtle variations in the color and quality of the silk ground.[23] Similar to the Mahāmāyūrī banner, they feature a single bodhisattva standing in contrapposto under a round canopy atop a lotus pedestal, wearing a dhoti and scarves and holding a ritual implement, while adorned with gold jewelry and peaked crowns. The use of bright colors and the lavish attention paid to the linear, ikat-like patterned effects of the textiles are particularly striking.[24]

Does the Mahāmāyūrī banner belong to this group? It shares the motif of a standing deity on a lotus pedestal, and the borders have similarly been sewn rather than painted. However, there are important differences. Although roughly the same height, the Mahāmāyūrī banner is nearly twice as wide as the ten banners in London and New Delhi. Its painting style also displays a greater sense of refinement, and the floral textile pattern is distinct from the striped ikat textiles of the other banners. Nevertheless, the Khotanese stylistic elements of the Mahāmāyūrī banner are corroborated by visual and epigraphic evidence stemming from the painting itself. Several features in the painting suggest that it was made in Khotan, or in Dunhuang by a Khotanese artist or one familiar with Khotanese stylistic idioms. A mural-painting fragment probably from a site in Khotan shows a peacock feather wielded in the hand of a deity (fig. 12). The three-dimensional modeling in the face and body of the deity and in the petals of the lotus pedestal are also

characteristic of the Khotanese painting style, as are the broad facial features, high arched eyebrows, heavily lidded eyes, and long nose bridge of Mahāmāyūrī and the seated Buddha in the banner head (see fig. 5).[25] The painting further displays visual evidence of the cross-cultural exchanges that typically characterize Khotanese painting by the dramatically billowing ribbons attached to either side of the crown, for example, which originate from those worn by Sasanian kings (fig. 13) and demonstrate the afterlife of earlier Iranian motifs.[26]

The lightweight nature and portability of painted banners offer a glimpse into how Central Asian iconography and painting styles were transmitted along the silk routes. Importantly, as our knowledge of Khotanese painting is largely informed by mural-painting fragments and paintings executed on wooden panels, the Mahāmāyūrī banner provides valuable insight into Khotanese visual culture and Buddhist practice. Equally of value, the association of the Mahāmāyūrī banner with a Khotanese donor is demonstrated by a close reading of the painting's hitherto unexamined inscription.

A KHOTANESE OFFICIAL'S DONATION

> *Yaraiṣä nāmai āmācä haiṣṭe tcahauryāṃ parṣāṃ ba'ysuśte brrī[ye. . . .*
> (The *āmāca*-official named *Yaraiṣa* donated, in love of bodhi of the Four Assemblies. . . .)

This inscription on the Mahāmāyūrī banner was written on the left edge of the verso side of the painting (fig. 14) in Khotanese, a middle-Iranian language, and in the Brāhmī script. After the painting was completed, the writer must have turned the painting sideways and inscribed the text from left to right.[27] The text begins below the canopy and above the image of Mahāmāyūrī. The first syllable is unclear, but there is space for only one syllable in front of the second and third syllables, which are clearly *rai* and *ṣä*. The first syllable may be tentatively read as *ya*. Thus, the first three syllables, which constitute the name of the donor, may be reconstructed as **Yaraiṣa*.[28] Due to damage, it is impossible to know how much text is missing at the end of the inscription. The last, partially visible syllable is that of *brrī*, no doubt the beginning of the word *brrīya*, meaning "love." The space of the torn section of the banner would have allowed for several more words. One would assume, based on similar inscriptions, that the intentions of the donor might have been expressed. The missing part might have also included the date when the painting was made, but this scenario is less likely because the date is usually given at the beginning of a dedicatory inscription.[29]

The meaning of the extant part of the inscription is otherwise clear: an official with the title of *āmāca*, possibly named Yaraiṣa, donated something "in love of bodhi of the Four Assemblies." The verb used here, *hatīś-*, has the general meaning "to give."[30] But in religious contexts, it often means more specifically "to donate," which better fits the context of this inscription.[31] The inscription does not specify what this *āmāca* official donated, but it is very likely that it was the painting on which this inscription was written. The phrase "in love of bodhi" is commonly found in Khotanese donation texts. For instance, when commissioning a text about the Buddha's former births, titled *Jātakastava*, the donor "ordered it to be written in love of bodhi."[32] The phrase "Four Assemblies" refers to the four groups of Buddhists: monks, nuns, laymen, and laywomen. The genitive plural construction "of the Four Assemblies" shows that the donation was not merely for the personal benefit of the donor but that of all Buddhist devotees.

The title *āmāca* held by the donor of this painting derives from the Sanskrit term *āmātya*, meaning "minister."[33] In eighth-century secular documents from Khotan, the term was often used in combination with other titles to denote an official of the highest status in the government of Khotan.[34] Because of the centrality of this title in the Khotanese bureaucracy, it also appeared in Chinese (*amozhi*) and Tibetan (*a-ma-cha*), the languages of the two empires that ruled Khotan between the seventh and ninth centuries. In Khotanese documents from Dunhuang, most of which date to the tenth century, *āmāca* remained an important title.[35] For instance, in the preface to the *Jātakastava*, the author of the text prays for the people of Khotan: after mentioning the king, the queen, and the princes, the author continues to list "the great prime minister (Khotanese: *tsai-syāṃ*; Chinese: *zaixiang*), *āmāca* the servant of the god," as well as "the good, the bad, and the middle, all the people in the country."[36] From the hierarchical sequencing of the prayer it is clear that in the tenth century, *āmāca*, while a lower title than prime minister, was still one of the most important titles in Khotan. It is therefore fitting that an *āmāca* should have had the means to commission such a lavish silk painting. But how did a painting commissioned by a Khotanese official end up in the library cave in Dunhuang? To answer this question, we need to place the life of this painting in the context of the political history of Central Asia in the ninth to the tenth century.



fig. 14 Inscription from Banner with Mahāmāyūrī (verso; see fig. 1 for recto)

DUNHUANG AND KHOTAN: SILK ROAD ENVOYS AND BUDDHIST PATRONAGE

There was an era of political fragmentation across Asia during the ninth and tenth centuries. The three ruling empires—the Tibetan Empire (618–842), the Uyghur Empire (744–840), and the Tang dynasty (618–907)—that dominated Central Asia in the previous centuries were defeated in the mid- to late ninth century.[37] Both Khotan and Dunhuang were under the rule of the Tibetan Empire until the mid-ninth century, when they each acquired political independence. While it is very likely that Khotan and Dunhuang exchanged envoys in the ninth century, the earliest documentation about such an event dates to 901.[38] The diplomatic relations between the two states were further solidified during the tenth century by intermarriage of the Khotanese royal family and the Cao family that ruled Dunhuang.[39] As a result, there was no major warfare between these two states for at least a century, and images of the kings and queens of Khotan appeared next to images of the lords of Dunhuang in the Dunhuang caves.[40] Although Dunhuang and Khotan were separated by about a thousand miles (or 1,564 kilometers on the closest modern highway), they had a uniquely close relationship in the ninth and tenth centuries.

This relationship was sustained by a frequent exchange of personnel. Scholars have noticed that a large number of the Khotanese-language documents found in the library cave in Dunhuang are reports by Khotanese envoys.[41] The Dunhuang government and monasteries often provided accommodations for Khotanese envoys and monks.[42] Similarly, many Dunhuang residents also traveled to Khotan, evidenced by the several contracts made by these travelers.[43] As a result, there was likely a constant presence of Khotanese elites, including princes, princesses, government officials, and Buddhist monks in Dunhuang during the ninth and tenth centuries.[44] At the same time, these Khotanese luminaries engaged with the local society of Dunhuang as Buddhist patrons. Dunhuang was known as a particularly important place for Buddhist activities, and in Khotanese texts, Dunhuang is sometimes described as a "land of god" (Khotanese: *gyasta/jasta-kṣīra*).[45] Many Khotanese travelers who visited Dunhuang were monks. According to an envoy's report, for instance, a diplomatic mission to China from Khotan, led by a certain Ana Saṃgaa, had eleven *ācārya* (Buddhist teachers) and six *gṛhastha* (householders).[46] But even laypeople like these householders were probably Buddhists. Khotanese monks and laypeople were engaged in Buddhist devotional activities, such as the lighting of lamps, the organization of vegetarian feasts at Buddhist monasteries, the building of stupas, and the construction of Buddhist caves. For instance, a Khotanese envoy named Ṣaṃdū "went around the city to 121 shrines" and "sent 502 litres of oil for use in all the temples situated throughout the city" when he was in Dunhuang.[47]

One of the most important and visible ways Khotanese people engaged with the Buddhist communities in Dunhuang was through the making of paintings. A prime minister from Khotan commissioned paintings in the Dunhuang caves to pray for good relations between Dunhuang and Khotan and the health of both sovereigns. In this prayer, he described the painting process as "Yielding the precious treasure of exotic nature, I summoned crafty artisans of the red and black colors. [The

artisans] drew the ornamentations of *tathāgata*, and painted the true image of bodhisattvas."[48] Among the nearly five hundred caves in the Mogao Buddhist Cave Complex, several have been identified as having been either repaired or constructed by Khotanese donors.[49]

On the topic of the sponsorship of paintings by Khotanese donors, one letter is particularly relevant to the painted banner under discussion. In 964, a female Khotanese servant residing in Dunhuang wrote a letter to Khotan, in which she asked the princess and prime minister to send support for the construction of a cave shrine. Among the things she asked for were "colors for painting" (Chinese, *huacaise*) and "colored thread for making an embroidered image for the Sanjie Monastery" (Chinese, *Sanjiesi xiuxiang xianse*).[50] The "embroidered image for the Sanjie Monastery" likely refers to items that were donated to the monastery. As historian Rong Xinjiang has shown, the Sanjie Monastery was the original repository of many manuscripts and artifacts that were later deposited in the Dunhuang library cave.[51] The letter from 964 provides a firm example of Khotanese officials donating religious images to the monastery, and in a similar way, the Mahāmāyūrī banner may also have been donated to the Sanjie Monastery, after which it was deposited in the library cave. The *āmāca* official *Yaraiṣa could have had this painted banner made in Khotan and brought to Dunhuang, or he could have traveled to Dunhuang himself and commissioned the banner there. In either scenario, the distinctive Khotanese style reflects the impact of Khotanese visual culture upon artistic production in Dunhuang.

The Mahāmāyūrī banner is not the only painting bearing Khotanese inscriptions that was found in the Dunhuang library cave. There are about half a dozen known examples of paintings on paper and silk with Khotanese inscriptions, and this recent acquisition by the Metropolitan Museum is a significant addition to this small but important group of materials.[52] A few common features unite the Mahāmāyūrī banner and the other pieces. First, they were commissioned by Khotanese donors, probably officials and other social elites. Second, either the objects were made in Khotan, then brought to Dunhuang, or they were made in Dunhuang at the request of Khotanese donors. Thirdly, these items were likely donated to monasteries in Dunhuang, particularly the Sanjie Monastery, as offerings. Because of their similarities, the paintings merit further scholarly attention as a coherent set of materials, which will allow a better understanding of the presence and the role in Dunhuang of Khotanese art and Khotanese people.

THE MAHĀMĀYŪRĪ BANNER SINCE ITS DISCOVERY

In 2007, the Mahāmāyūrī banner was auctioned at Christie's, London, as part of a sale by the Andrews family, who were stated as owners of the painting through their descent from Frederick Henry Andrews.[53] Frederick Andrews had been a friend and sometime assistant to Stein from their meeting in Lahore in the late 1880s until Stein's death in 1943. During four expeditions to Central Asia between 1900 and 1930 (Andrews did not participate), Stein acquired numerous artifacts, and Andrews assisted with their cataloguing and study. If we begin with a reasonable assumption that this painting came from the library cave, then how did Andrews acquire it?[54] Did he buy the painting himself or could it have been given to him by Stein?

The former seems implausible. Andrews's financial situation was not robust.[55] It is unlikely he could have afforded the painting were it offered for sale. Second, the piece was in a fragmentary and unconserved condition when it came to Christie's. If Andrews had bought the banner either for his own pleasure or for resale, it would be a reasonable assumption that he would have had it mounted and framed—or that it would have been mounted before sale to him—to increase its worth. So, while we cannot state with certainty that Andrews did not buy this piece, it is not a well-supported hypothesis. Is it possible that it was gifted to him by Stein? It was a condition of Stein's grants that all finds were to join museum collections in Britain and India, and he was meticulous in recording his finds in situ, making such gifts unlikely.[56]

If Andrews did not purchase the painting or receive it as a gift, and it was originally part of Stein's collection, then how might it have found its way to Andrews? As argued below, it is plausible that he acquired it accidentally because of the nature of this particular collection. In order to understand the situation, some background on the relationship between Stein and Andrews and on the acquisition and documentation of material from Dunhuang is necessary.

Andrews, a graduate of Saint Martin's School of Art in London, arrived in Lahore in 1890 to become vice principal of Mayo School of Arts. In Lahore, he met Stein, with whom he remained lifelong friends. Stein was meticulous about recordkeeping and gave most of the artifacts that he excavated a unique site mark when in the field, writing on the artifact itself. He kept lists of the site marks so that, when unpacked, the material could be cross-checked. These lists were also published in his expedition reports, so that all the material was deposited in public collections.

In 1907, Stein visited Dunhuang on his second expedition (1906–8) and acquired thousands of manuscripts and hundreds of textiles and portable paintings on silk, paper, and hemp from the library cave. This material was not acquired through excavation but in rushed and clandestine circumstances in which Stein and his expedition assistant and interpreter, Jiang Xiaowan (d. 1922), were given bundles of material by the unofficial guardian of the cave, Wang Yuanlu (ca. 1849–1931), to examine secretly.[57] These items were inscribed with a site mark, such as Ch.i.001, "Ch." indicating Dunhuang (Ch'ien-fo tung), "i" as the bundle number, and "001" as the serial number (although it is probable that the serial number was added later).[58]

When preparing for their departure from the field in July 1908, Jiang started to unpack, number, list, and repack all regular bundles, making index slips as he went along.[59] He only had time to record about one-third of the material and although his index slips were used during the unpacking at the British Museum, the authors of this article have been unable to locate them. Consequently, unlike other material, there was no complete master list to use for checking when unpacking the Dunhuang material in London, nor did all of the material contain a site mark.[60]

When Stein's finds arrived in England in 1909, Andrews was employed by the India Office Library, London, to unpack, sort, and list them. Stein notes in July 1910 that seventy to eighty banners had been flattened.[61] Most of the paintings required some basic conservation before they could be identified and catalogued. In many cases, pieces of paper or silk were discovered in crumpled balls or stuck together with other pieces, either deliberately—old textiles and paper being used for patching—or accidentally, as a result of being squashed together in storage.

The scholar Raphaël Petrucci compiled two sections of a catalogue on the paintings, which were published as Appendix E to Stein's expedition report.[62] Laurence Binyon, assistant keeper in charge of the Sub-Department of Oriental Prints and Manuscripts at the British Museum, and his assistant, Arthur Waley, took over this work after Petrucci's early death. A list of all the identified paintings was prepared for the end of the chapter on Dunhuang, but the banner is mentioned neither here nor in the Appendix.

Stein's second expedition was funded jointly by the India Office and the British Museum, with the agreement that the finds would be divided: three-fifths to India and two-fifths to the British Museum. In 1918–19, the selection for India, still in London, was packed into sixty-seven crates and sent to the India Store Depot in Lambeth, London, for safekeeping during World War I.[63] Those destined for the British Museum were also packed for safeguarding, and in 1919 they were acquisitioned into the British Museum collections,[64] and the others were shipped to India.[65] Again, the banner was not listed among any of these records.

However, this does not mean it was not from Stein's second expedition. By no means had all the material been conserved at this time and some remained in a state that conservators at the time did not feel able to tackle. In these early years, many of the original bundles are marked as having been returned from conservation as untreatable.[66] So, it is possible that the painting was among the second expedition material kept at the British Museum in an unidentified state. Furthermore, material from Stein's third expedition (1916–18) was sent to British India to be conserved, listed, and prepared for acquisition. Stein had acquired more material from Dunhuang on this expedition, and while there is no evidence of paintings or banners among them, it is not impossible that some of the material included unconserved fragments, such as the banner.[67]

It is certain that the painting is not described in Stein's published reports, nor in any of the unpublished lists and correspondence, strongly suggesting that it was not recognized at this time. The reason could be that the work was either pasted onto the back of another painting or hidden between outer wrappers or remained lost in a bundle. It is also possible that the painting was mixed in with material that Andrews had at home. For a scholar to work from home was quite common at this time, and items from the Stein collections were often sent to specialists in London and farther afield. Andrews undoubtedly worked in this manner, as is evidenced by later correspondence from Stein asking Andrews to look for certain items.

Could such an item have remained with Andrews and only later been unfolded to be revealed as an important painting? It is not far-fetched to suggest that Andrews, with his background, familiarity with the material, and knowledge of the conservation work, did this himself. But then if he discovered the piece in such a way some time after the expeditions, why did he not inform Stein about it and ensure that it was returned to the collection? Or was it discovered only after Stein's death? But then Andrews might have been expected to return it to the museum.[68]

We cannot at present, and might never, be able to answer these questions. But it remains most probable that the banner was from the library cave at Dunhuang,

acquired by Stein either in 1907 or from 1913 to 1916, but then in a condition unrecognizable as a fine painting. It is possible that—still unrecognized—it accidentally remained in Andrews's possession and only came to light after Stein's death in 1943, and that Andrews either forgot about it or died before it could be unfolded. The subsequent arrival of the banner at the Metropolitan Museum thus closes the circle on the intriguing journey of this important painted silk banner, from its initial production, its circulation within the cultural milieu of medieval Silk Road oasis cities, and finally, its acquisition in the early twentieth century to the present day.

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NOTES

1 The six translations are the Taishō Tripiṭaka texts T19.982, T19.984, T19.985, T19.986, T19.987, and T19.988. The various recensions bear slightly different titles but share in common a focus on Mahāmāyūrī and the healing or apotropaic properties of the incantation (dharani or mantra). While these two terms are often used interchangeably, one difference between them is that mantras are usually only a few syllables and dharanis are often longer.

2 These are the translations by Śrīmitra (T19.986, T19.987) and Kumārajīva (T19.988). For studies of the Mahāmāyūrī Dharani Sutra, see Sørensen 2006, Des Jardins 2011, and Overbey 2016.

3 T19.987.479a29–b3.

4 T19.987.479b3–9.

5 T19.987.479b9–11; T19.988.483a27–29. This narrative framework appears in T19.987 and in the Kumārajīva translation (T19.988).

6 For example, a medicine bowl is one of the objects commonly wielded by Bhaiṣajyaguru (the "Medicine Buddha") in paintings and sculptures.

7 Pandey and Pandey 1988, pp. 9–10.

8 According to the ritual manual attributed to Amoghavajra, *Ritual Commentary Spoken by the Buddha on the Altar of the Great Peacock Wisdom King's Image*, the four-armed Mahāmāyūrī is seated on a "golden peacock king" and holds peacock feathers in his second left hand; see T19.983A.440a4–10. Although Mahāmāyūrī is represented in the Metropolitan Museum banner as a standing deity with two arms, the association with the peacock and peacock feathers remains consistent.

9 T19.986.477c7–8.

10 Mahāmāyūrī was also associated with rainmaking rituals and with Buddhist kingship. For images of Mahāmāyūrī in Dunhuang and Sichuan, see Wang Huimin 1996, Hashimura 2011, and M. Wang n.d. (forthcoming).

11 See Copp 2014.

12 Wang Le 2007, pp. 58–59. For hemp banners from Dunhuang, see R. Whitfield 1998.

13 On nonhuman agency in Buddhist rituals, see E. Wang 2011 and Kim 2017.

14 For a relevant passage from the *Sūtra of the Revered and Victorious Dhāraṇī of the Buddha's Uṣṇīṣa*, see Copp 2014, p. 146.

15 Based on her reinterpretation of the mural painting on the south wall of Mogao Cave 217, Shimono Akiko argues that visual evidence exists for the practice of inscribing dharanis upon a cloth banner, and then hanging the banner from a tall structure; see Shimono 2004. For an important recent treatment of dharani pillars, see Liu 2008, in which the author argues for the multivalent associations of dharani pillars, stating that they functioned not only as vehicles for dharanis but also as stupas.

16 Pelliot chinois 2044, Département des Manuscrits, Bibliothèque Nationale de France, Paris (hereafter BnF), https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cc118669x. See Huang and Wu 1995, p. 159. We thank Allan Ding for this reference.

17 The double-sided Turfan banners are also discussed in Zaleski 2016, p. 83. We thank Mélodie Doumy for this reference. The Turfan banners are analyzed extensively in Bhattacharya-Haesner 2003.

18 The technique is discussed in Zaleski 2016, p. 85.

19 See Zhao 2007b, pp. 192–95.

20 Double-faced weave silk fabrics are known from the silk routes, resulting in different colors and even different patterns on each side of the fabric. For an example, see Zhao 2007a, pl. 124.

21 For the archaeological report, consult Stein 1921, vol. 2, pp. 1073–75.

22 There are two Tibetan inscriptions on the verso, one of which is a rough transliteration of the deity's name (*ba ca ra pang ne*).

For the inscription, see S. Whitfield and Williams 2004, p. 210, pl. 131.

23 For the British Museum paintings, see R. Whitfield 1982–85, vol. 1, pp. 333–34. For the National Museum of India paintings, see Chandra and Sharma 2012, pp. 221–23.

24 Compare, for example, to the solid-colored textiles in "Banner with Avalokiteśvara," Tang dynasty (618–907) or Guiyijun period (848–1036), ink and color on silk (56.5 × 16.5 cm), British Museum, 1919,0101,0.124 (Ch.00113). Because of the striped textiles of the garments and the ill-defined musculature of the bodhisattvas, which are also present in mural paintings from Balawaste, located in the eastern part of the Khotan oasis in present-day Xinjiang Uyghur Autonomous Region, archaeologist Gerd Gropp has argued that they are Khotanese in origin; see Gropp 1974, p. 94.

25 In the premodern connoisseurial literature, Khotanese painters such as Yuchi (Weichi) Yiseng (act. second half of the 7th century) were known for their technique of chiaroscuro. For a synthesis of the relevant primary sources on Khotanese painters, see Nagahiro 1955, p. 73.

26 Khotanese painting is said to reflect South Asian, Chinese, Sasanian, and Sogdian elements. See Williams 1973, pp. 110–11. It is worth noting that the unusual standing position of Mahāmāyūrī, who is usually shown seated on a peacock mount, echoes sixth-century Mahāmāyūrī sculptures at the Ellora Caves in western India; see Malandra 1993, pp. 96–97. Geri Malandra indicates that Mahāmāyūrī is paired with Bhṛkuṭī in Ellora Caves 6 and 8, which is unique to the site, and there are no textual precedents for Mahāmāyūrī's appearance. Nevertheless, the standing posture is very common in representations of deities in painted banners, so this does not imply a direct connection but rather points toward two distinct treatments of the standing Mahāmāyūrī.

27 This way of writing Khotanese inscriptions on paintings is more common than when the author writes the inscriptions vertically along the vertical direction of the painting, which is found in Pelliot tibétian 2222, BnF, https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cc123610h. See Filigenzi and Maggi 2008.

28 This name is not otherwise attested in Khotanese texts.

29 For a similar inscription that begins with the date, see Stein 1921, vol. 2, p. 1012.

30 Emmerick 1968, p. 145.

31 See examples in Bailey 1979, pp. 448–49.

32 Skjærvø 2002, p. 299.

33 Olivelle 2013, p. 40. This is the title of the famous minister Yaśa for King Aśoka in the Khotanese legend of Aśoka. See Bailey 1951a, pp. 40–44.

34 Wen 2008, p. 124.

35 For this dating of the Khotanese documents, see Zhang and Rong 2008, pp. 70–105.

36 Translation adapted from Dresden 1955, p. 422.

37 For this history, see Chavannes 1942, Maeda 1964, Beckwith 1993, and Drompp 2005.

38 Rong and Zhu 2013, p. 110.

39 Ibid., pp. 151–70.

40 This is particularly true in Cave 98, which contains the largest donor image in all the Dunhuang caves: the Khotanese king.

41 Kumamoto 1982. These envoys also left records in Chinese and Tibetan in official letters, royal edicts, and notebooks. See Zhang and Rong 2008, pp. 1–14. For the Tibetan documents in particular, see Rong and Zhu 2013, pp. 375–412.

42 For example, for the Dunhuang government's provision of food to Khotanese envoys, see the British Library manuscript Stein 1366 in Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 3, p. 285; for a Dunhuang monastery's provision of food to Khotanese envoys, see Pelliot chinois 2642, BnF (https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/btv1b8303278d/f1.image); Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 3, p. 209.

43 In a tantalizing piece of evidence, of the forty-six people living in Suo Liuzhu Lane in Dunhuang who were late in their payment of taxation in firewood, twelve were recorded as having traveled to Khotan. See the Institute of Oriental Manuscripts, Russian Academy of Sciences, Saint Petersburg, Дx2149, in Tang and Lu 1986–90, vol. 2, p. 446.

44 Kumamoto 1996.

45 IOL Khot S. 21, British Library, in Skjærvø 2002, pp. 522–24.

46 Pelliot chinois 2958, BnF (https://gallica.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/btv1b8302289w.r-Pelliot%20chinois%202958?rk-21459;2); Bailey 1967, pp. 96–97.

47 Bailey 1951b, p. 44.

48 Pelliot chinois 2812, BnF (https://archivesetmanuscrits.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cc119447n). The Chinese text reads: *She yilei zhi zhencai. Zhao danqing zhi qiaojiang. Hui rulai zhi puxi, tu pusa zhi zhenyi*. See Zhang and Rong 2008, pp. 91–92.

49 Chen 2014, pp. 244–47.

50 Institute of Oriental Manuscripts, Russian Academy of Sciences, Saint Petersburg, Дx.2148(2)+, Дx.6069(1). See Zhang and Rong 2008, p. 293.

51 Rong 1999–2000.

52 For these inscribed paintings, see Stein 1921, vol. 2, p. 1012, Emmerick and Dudbridge 1978, Emmerick 1984, and Filigenzi and Maggi 2008.

53 Sale, Christie's, London, May 15, 2007, lot 171; https://www.christies.com/lotfinder/lot/an-extremely-rare-and-important-tang-dynasty-4905708-details.aspx?from=salesummary&intObjectID=4905708. See also S. Whitfield 2017.

54 Although forgeries were produced later of such material, the fragmentary state of this piece, its distinctive subject matter, and its sophistication all strongly suggest that this is not a forgery. See Cohen 2002, pp. 24–30, and R. Whitfield 2002 for discussions.

55 At least this is the impression from reading Stein on Andrews, along with Andrews's dissatisfaction with most of his positions, although Andrews left a reasonable legacy.

56 The British Museum Act of 1767 allowed the Trustees "to exchange, sell or dispose of any Duplicates of Printed Books. . . ." This was most probably behind the decision to exchange a Dunhuang blockprint from the Stein Dunhuang collection, 1919,0101,0.241 (Ch.00185.a), with an item from the Royal Ontario Museum, Toronto, in 1924 (927.24).

57 Stein 1921, vol. 2, pp. 801ff.

58 In the expedition report, Stein says, "I may note here that when the marking with serial numbers was made at the British Museum . . ." (1921, vol. 2, p. 814n2).

59 While it seems that most of the paintings were listed at this time, some of the lists for the paintings have not been found.

60 It is regrettable that the site mark, when given, was not always recorded in catalogues and databases of the material. International Dunhuang Project (IDP) started recording this information in its database at the British Library, but the work is still to be completed. However, from the work done, we can see that the site mark carries important information about the original storage of the manuscripts in the bundles in the cave, as suggested previously by Rong Xinjiang and others. These

results will be published in a forthcoming article by Paschalia Terzi and Susan Whitfield.

61 Stein to Percy Allen, July 17, 1910, "Papers of Sir Marc Aurel Stein (1862–1943)," MSS Stein 7/81–2, Bodleian Library, Oxford. Note that the material was not yet acquisitioned into any collection.

62 Stein 1921, vol. 3, pp. 1392–1428, followed by a short essay by Binyon (ibid., pp. 1428–31).

63 An exception was made for the Kharoṣṭhī tablets because many were due for India but still being catalogued. Permission was made for the Kharoṣṭhī tablets to be kept unpacked at the British Museum so that the cataloguing could be completed. The list of the material removed and details of its move on February 12, 1919, are given in "Papers Relating to Sir Marc Aurel Stein," CE32/23 and CE32/24, Central Archives, British Museum, London.

64 Hence the prefix to their museum reg. number, 1919.

65 Now in the National Museum, New Delhi.

66 For an example of the state of much of the material before conservation and the time-consuming work in flattening folded material, see the British Library's time-lapse video *Tangut Fragments Conserved by Vania Assis*, filmed by E. Hunter and C. Norman: https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=FIP3jMfZkY4.

67 They included manuscript scrolls and clay relief plaques acquired directly from Wang Yuanlu at the caves, as well as other rolls offered by sellers to Stein in the town and in other places en route. See Stein 1928, pp. 354–62, for a review of this material, which he notes was in good condition—indeed, the Dunhuang manuscripts scholar Fujieda Akira suggested much of it consisted of forgeries (Fujieda 2002). But, more pertinent to the discussion here, it was not in a form that suggests a painting on silk could be hidden among it.

68 It is, of course, also possible that the banner was discovered and unfolded by his family after Andrews's death in 1957. Apart from small bequests, his estate passed to his nephew, Richard Cuthbert Andrews, and Richard's wife, Barbara.

REFERENCES

ABBREVIATION

T Taishō Tripiṭaka texts (volume and number)

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T19.982
Amoghavajra (Bukong Jin'gang 不空金剛, 705–774), trans.
Fomu da kongque mingwang jing 佛母大孔雀明王經 (Sūtra on the Buddha's Mother, the Great Peacock Wisdom King).

T19.983A
Amoghavajra (Bukong Jin'gang 不空金剛, 705–774), attr. to
Foshuo da kongque mingwang huaxiang tanchang yigui 佛說大孔雀明王畫像壇場儀軌 (The Ritual Commentary Spoken by the Buddha on the Altar of the Great Peacock Wisdom King's Image).

T19.984
Saṇghabhara (460–524), trans.
Kongquewang zhou jing 孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra of the Peacock King Mantra).

T19.985
Yijing 義淨 (635–713), trans.
Foshuo da kongque zhou wang jing 佛說大孔雀呪王經 (Sūtra Preached by the Buddha on the Great Peacock, the King of Mantras).

T19.986
Śrīmitra (Boshilimiduoluo 帛尸梨蜜多羅, d. mid-fourth century), trans.
Da jinse kongquewang zhou jing 大金色孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra of the Great Golden Peacock King Mantra).

T19.987
Śrīmitra (Boshilimiduoluo 帛尸梨蜜多羅, d. mid-fourth century), trans.
Foshuo da jinse kongquewang zhou jing 佛說大金色孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra Preached by the Buddha on the Great Golden Peacock King Mantra).

T19.988
Kumārajīva (Jiumoluoshi 鳩摩羅什, 344–413), trans.
Kongquewang zhou jing 孔雀王呪經 (Sūtra of the Peacock King Mantra).

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